Summary History and Brief Circumstances of Constantinople

Summary Ancient History of Constantinople. Before I give an account of the detailed circumstances of this place under separate headings, it is necessary that I give an account of its ancient history extremely briefly, and, along with that, its general present circumstance with cursoriness. The initial history of this city (meaning when it used to be called Byzantium) is extremely ancient, but not a very short period of time has passed since its name has been Constantinople.[1] Constantine the Great laid its foundation in 476, and from that time until the age of Muḥammad Fātiḥ [Mehmet the Conqueror], it remained the seat of the throne of the Caesars of Rome [Rūm (Turkey, Byzantium)]. Its circumstances are found in extreme detail in English and present Islamic geographies. It is also mentioned in classical Islamic geographies. However, except for Ibn-i Baṭūṭah, I do not know of any Islamic author who has written an eyewitness account of the events of that time.[2] [34] Ibn-i Baṭūṭah saw this city in 725 Hijrī [1324–25]. At that time, there was a Christian government here. He writes, "This is an extremely magnificent city, and because it is divided by a channel of water, it has been separated into two parts. One part, which is on the eastern shore of the channel, is called Istanbūl, and this is the part in which the Caesar of Rome and the members of government and amīrs live. The other part is named Ghalaṭah. The great traders of Europe generally live in it, whom the Caesar forcibly keeps in his obedience."[3] Ibn-i Baṭūṭah has praised the extent of trade of these merchants and ridiculed their filthiness. He writes, "When I entered this city, in addition to small boats, nearly one hundred large ships were present, but

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the entire market is extremely dirty and foul, and even the churches are no exception to this."*

Muslims had looked upon it with eyes of conquest in the very first century. Thus, the first to strike a sword on the iron door of the city walls, ʻAbdullāh bin al-Muṭṭalib,[4] was the general of Caliph Walīd bin ʻAbd al-Malik.[5] After that, other caliphs and sulṭāns also attacked it. But the end of the Caesar of Rome was to be at the hands of Muḥammad Fātiḥ, who raised the standard of Islam in place of the cross above this magnificent capital of the sultanate in 857 Hijrī [1453]. The thing about this astonishing conflict that is worth remembering is that because the Christians had blocked the way to the port by sea, the Turks [35] spread out wooden boards for five miles on the rocky terrain that lies between the Bosphorus and the Golden Horn, and, by driving ships to which they had attached wheels across it, conveyed all the armies to the Golden Horn. At that time, the age of this renowned Fātiḥ was twenty-three years. The chronogram of the conquest is *baldatun ṭayyibatun*.[6]

Present Condition. The present condition is that the city is settled on both shores of the branch of the Bosphorus Strait, which stretches far off into the distance, and for this reason it has two parts. One part is called Istanbul, and all the large masjids, libraries, and tombs of the sulṭāns are in this part. The population of Muslims, too, is in abundance here. The second part begins with Perah, and at its far side are located Bashikṭāsh [Beşiktaş], and so on, where the sulṭān's royal palace and the hall of justice are. On the other side of Perah [Pera] is Ghalaṭah [Galata], and because all the major European traders and consuls of the sultanate reside here, it is more appropriate to call it the European settlement.

They say that no city in the world is as scenic as Constantinople, and the truth is that with respect to scenery, one cannot even imagine being more beautiful than this. For this reason, they call its harbor "Golden Horn" in English, meaning *sunahrī sīng*.[7] Here and there, a series of buildings lies

* I have copied Ibn-i Baṭūṭah's description so that you would be able to compare it with the present state of things.

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right on the edge of the sea and stretches far off into the distance. The land that is in front of the buildings is extremely level and clean. Its surface is perfectly even with the surface of the sea, and a stunningly beautiful scene has been produced there.

An estimate of the extent and civic development of the city can be made from the fact that in Istanbul alone there are five hundred congregational masjids, [36] 171 bathhouses, 324 serais, 164 classical madrasas, 500 modern madrasas, 12 colleges, 45 libraries, 305 hostels, and 48 printing presses. There is such an abundance of business and traffic that numerous tramways, public cars, twelve steamships, an underground rail, and ordinary rails (which leave after every half hour), run at all times, and despite this, there is still such a crowd of pedestrians on the streets that it seems like a festival at all times. The toll for crossing the bridge that lies between Ghalaṭah and Istanbul is one paisa per person. Its daily income is no less than five or six thousand rupees.

Coffeehouses. Coffeehouses are in extreme abundance. In my estimation, there must be no fewer than four or five thousand. Several of them, whose buildings seem like royal palaces, are extremely magnificent. All kinds of sherbets, chai, and coffee, and so on, are always available in the coffeehouses. Most coffeehouses are on the seashore, and some are right in the sea, for which a wooden bridge has been built. Daily newspapers, too, are available in the coffeehouses. People go on drinking coffee as they read the newspaper. In Constantinople—rather, in all these regions—coffeehouses are counted among the necessities of life. When my Arab friends heard from me that there is no such custom in Hindustan, they used to say in astonishment, *bi-aish yatasallūn*,[8] meaning, how do people amuse themselves there? In these regions, coffeehouses are places for meeting with friends, and for the warmth and passion of company and conversation.

Alas, Hindustanis have no taste for such things. They just do not know [37] how necessary public intercourse of this kind is for the pleasure of life and what kind of effect it has on the uplifting of one's constitution. Friendly assemblies take place in our area, too, the method of which is that a few friends sometimes come to sit together at the house of a friend.

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But there are two great defects in this method. First, sessions of entertainment should take place in atmospheric locations so that bodily health can benefit from fresh and fine air. Second, it is a serious flaw that because these sessions are private sessions, no conversation takes place in them except for backbiting, complaint, and nonsense of this kind, as opposed to coffeehouses, where, because of the public gathering, one cannot find occasion for things of this kind. I always sat with friends in coffeehouses in the evening in Constantinople and Egypt, but I never heard discussions of this kind. No discussion except for joking and jest took place there, nor could it have taken place.

Examples of European and Asian Civilization. One great special quality of Constantinople is that if someone wishes to view an image of European and Asian civilization in a single folio, then he should see this place. Tour the shops of booksellers, and on one side is an extremely large shop. There is a floor of marble stone. There are extremely beautiful glass cabinets. All the books are bound, and the bindings are not ordinary, but rather generally gilt and gilded. The owner of the shop is seated, having set up a table and chairs. Two or three young, well-dressed boys are busy at work, moving this way and that. You set foot in the store. A boy brings a chair and sets it in front of you, and hands you the catalogue of books. The price is mentioned in the catalogue, and bargaining for more or less is not permitted. [38]

On the other side, a disorderly pile of books is set on platforms on the side of the street. The carpet for seating is laid out on the floor, and it, too, is so small that there is not space for more than four people. A period of some hours is required to settle on a price.

Similarly, shops of both types, of every profession and industry, are found. The same is true of public cleanliness and elegance. Look at Ghalaṭah, and it seems like a piece of Europe. Stores: tall, appointed, and decorated. Streets: broad and even. There is no sign of dirt or filth anywhere. By contrast, in Istanbul, where the population is largely comprised of Muslims, most streets are unclean and in some places so uneven that it is difficult to walk.

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Reason for the Difference in Conditions. Having come to this city, the first thought that will come to the heart of a traveler will probably concern why there is such a difference between the two parts of this glorious capital. Thus, this thought came to my heart at first. I discussed and researched this a great deal. I easily came to know the reason for the difference in the conditions of the residents. That is, the poverty of the Muslims and the wealth of other nations. But ostensibly this could not be considered the reason for the filth and unevenness of the streets and thoroughfares. Thus, I inquired of an esteemed Turkish officer, Ḥusain Ḥasīb Āfandī, police commissioner.[9] He said, "Our municipal taxes are very low. A great many things are exempt from tax collection, but in Ghalaṭah, the European merchants pay high taxes of their own accord. [39] Thus, the municipality can spend those amounts generously." I thought, "This is the same Ghalaṭah regarding which Ibn-i Baṭūṭah has harshly complained of dirtiness and filth. Now they have such care for cleanliness and tidiness that they pay large taxes for it." The fact is that cleanliness and propriety have become the leaven of Europe these days.

The Form of the Buildings and Fire. The buildings here are of a form completely different from the buildings of Hindustan. Houses are usually of three or four stories. There is absolutely no courtyard. All the buildings are made of wood. The homes of major amīrs and pāshās, too, are made of wood, and this is the reason that fire often breaks out here. No month, rather, no week passes without two or three homes burning to ruin, and sometimes entire neighborhoods are burnt to ashes. Extreme care has been taken and arrangements made by the sulṭān for extinguishing fires. Several hundred people are appointed especially for this work. An extremely tall tower has been built on which several workers are present at all times, so when they see fire breaking out somewhere, they immediately sound the alarm. Other small towers of this kind have been set up all around. When fire breaks out somewhere, canons are immediately fired, and fire-extinguishing workers from every part of the city arrive at the site with all their instruments. They have been ordered to continue rushing headlong, so much so that if someone walking down the street is crushed by their

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onrush, there is no criminal accusation. I asked people why the buildings were not made of stone and learned that they are quite uncomfortable in the wintertime, and bodily health suffers. [40]

Climate. The climate here is extremely excellent. It is extremely cold in the winter, and sometimes it even snows. The warm season, which I experienced myself, is so pleasant that it cannot be described. It is a wonder why the amīrs of our area do not travel to Constantinople instead of Shimlā and Nainītāl.[10] The water comes from the mountains and is extremely agreeable and conducive to digestion.

Fruits. Fruits of every kind are in abundance, and the grapes and melons in particular are incomparable. The melons of Lucknow are perhaps a bit ahead in delicacy, but they cannot equal the melons of this place in sweetness. Guavas, which the Arabs call *injās* [pear],[11] are of a strange conical shape, similar to carrots, not in color, but in form. But they are extremely sweet and delicious. The apples are bigger and sweeter than the apples of Kabul. There is a fruit here they call *mishmish* [apricot].[12] It is somewhat similar to the *jāmun* of our area.[13] Fruits of every kind are extremely inexpensive. Grapes are at most two annas per seer. Apples, the best of the best, two for a paisa. And so on.

Dress and Fashion. The dress and fashion is entirely European. From outward appearance, it cannot be known if a person is Muslim or Christian. Christians and Jews all wear a red cap, which could have been the distinguishing dress of the Turks, and for this reason there is no means of distinguishing between the nations. In one respect this practice is good because the more the traces of difference among different nations are eliminated, the more beneficial it is for civilization. But in matters of social necessity, it leads to serious problems. [41] I often faced difficulties because of it, and I always thought that if Ḥażrat ʻUmar gave the order to the Christians to restrict themselves to national clothing, he was right to do so. The astonishing thing is that the religious group here, meaning the ʻulamā and teachers, too, could not escape the effect of Europe. There are buttons on their pajamas, like pants. The only difference is that they are

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wide and loose on top and are beautifully pleated. Instead of a kurta or achkan, there is only a *wāyiskōṫ* [waistcoat]. They wear a robe on top of the waistcoat, and this is the distinguishing symbol that separates them from other groups of people. The influence of Europe is also found in the fact that they do not fasten the buttons of their robes, and the waistcoat remains open from the front. These people, too, generally use the Turkish cap, but a band of white fabric is wrapped around it, which they call a *laffah* in Arabic, and it is considered the special symbol of the scholars. I shall write details of women's clothing in the discussion of women's culture and society.

Congregational Mosques and Royal Palaces. The excellent buildings and monumental buildings of this place are the congregational masjids and royal palaces. Discussion of the congregational masjids, with some degree of detail, will come later under a separate heading. They call royal palaces here sarāe [serai]. Their number is twenty or twenty-one, and all are located at far-off distances. These buildings are from the time of different sulṭāns and are buildings of extreme grandeur and glory. One palace, which is made of marble from top to bottom, is right on the edge of the sea and is extremely large, lofty, and beautiful. When the emperor of Germany was recently a guest of the sulṭān, this is the palace in which he stayed.

No Town Hall. It is a matter of great wonder that in the entire city there is no town hall. Even the public garden, meaning [42] the *bāgh-i ʿāmah*, is so small that it does not befit this magnificent capital.

Courts. The courts (except for one or two) are all located in one place, and they call this collective building the Bāb-i ʿĀlī. The office of the prime minister is also here. These buildings are not so magnificent. The High Court, which they call the Maḥkamat al-tam'īz here, is at a distance from the Bāb-i ʿĀlī. Although I did not go inside it, from the outside it seems like a very glorious building. The court of the police commissioner is in Ghalaṭah. I toured it well. The building is not so remarkable, but it is extremely orderly and well appointed. A very valuable Turkish carpet is

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spread out in the assembly room. The chairs, too, are extremely beautiful and elegant. I also saw the office of Maʿārif, meaning the Department of Education. It is an ordinary building, but due to cleanliness and orderliness, it seems attractive.

The Progress of Education in Colleges and Schools

Education. If I could have had any other purpose in this distant journey apart from visiting libraries, then it was to gain an estimate of the style of education and progress of education here. Thus, I paid more attention to it than to all other matters, and, to the extent that I could, I spared no effort. However, readers should not expect that I was also entirely successful in my objectives and that my educational report will be a complete report. The efforts that I was able to make for inquiries were that I went to the office of the Department of Education several times, inquired after matters requiring investigation from the officers of education, [43] went and saw large, important colleges and schools myself, met teachers and professors, and obtained the yearly reports of the colleges. But even with all these efforts, one cannot achieve complete success here. It is a strange practice among the Turks that they look at every single thing from the perspective of politics, and for this reason they do not like for any matter of business to come onto the public scene. The report of the Department of Education that is published with the annual record is extremely brief and purely summary. So much so that the salaries of the professors and teachers are not even mentioned. The reports of some colleges, for example the Maktab-i Ḥarbiyah [Military College] and the Maktab-i Sulṭānī [Imperial College], are published separately, but there is nothing in them except the results of the examinations and the curriculum of instruction.[14]

At first, I thought that I had few means of access, and this was why I could learn very little information, but when I read the book by Khair al-Dīn Pāshā, wazīr of Ṭūnis, I was consoled.[15] Where he has discussed Turkey and has written the state of its civilizational and educational progress, he has employed extreme cursoriness, and has apologized, saying, "The information about Turkey that I have written, I have written by means of English books, and for this reason could not write in detail. But

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not even this much can be found in the writings of Muslims." After this preface and apology, I begin my principle purpose.

Different Methods of Education. **Classical Education**. **Modern Education**. In Constantinople, rather, in all the Islamic regions, there are two methods of education: classical and modern. Classical education began with Turkish rule. Thus, Urkhān (died 761 Hijrī) [1359–60], who was the second emperor in this line, established a madrasa in Iznīq [İznik], and this was the first madrasa that was established in the Ottoman regions.[16] After Urkhān, other sulṭāns attended to education with royal ambition and established hundreds of academies and madrasas. [44] Thus, in my treatise, *Gużishtah ta'līm*, a full, detailed account of this can be found.[17] The history of new education begins from the time when Turkish government, having left the Asian mold, entered the European mold. The founder of this revolution was Sulṭān Maḥmūd, who first adopted European fashion and equipped his army in the manner of Europe.[18] This same modernizer[19] laid the foundation of the Military College in 1250 Hijrī [1834–35],[20] which was the first college of modern education. This college still exists and is the center of all military madrasas. After Sulṭān Maḥmūd, in 1261 Hijrī [1845–46], Sulṭān 'Abd al-Majīd[21] further extended modern education and established the rushdiyah schools.[22] Since then, this education has continued extensively and is making progress daily. Four levels of modern education have been established.

Elementary Education. *Ibtidā'iyah* [elementary]. Its duration is at most five years, but an intelligent and astute student can progress having finished it in two or three years, rather, in just a year or two. In it, instruction is given in the Glorious Quran, the Turkish language, Arabic spelling, script, and arithmetic up to long division.

Rushdiyah [Secondary Schools]. Duration of education: three years. Instruction is given in Turkish dictation, elements of the Turkish language, Turkish syntax, the tenets of Islam in the Turkish language, all four parts of arithmetic, French, Arabic, geography, geometry, the principles

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of commercial bookkeeping, and cartography. This level is approximately equal to the "middle" of our area, or somewhat ahead of it.[23]

Iʿdādiyah [High Schools] and the Number of Its Students. After rushdiyah is *iʿdādiyah*, which can be called "entrance." In 1892, the collective number of students of this class was 5,215. This includes the madrasas of all districts as well as the capital itself.[24] [45]

After iʿdādiyah are different specialized colleges, for example, the Civil College, the Legal College, and so on, a detailed description of which will come later.[25] The number of general and specialized madrasas of every kind in Constantinople is five hundred,* among which thirteen are major colleges.

The Progress of Education in the Era of the Present Sulṭān. **The Annual Expenses of Education**. It is generally accepted that education has made extreme progress in the time of the present sulṭān, and continues to do so daily. At the time of the sulṭān's enthronement, the number of rushdiyah madrasas was 96, but now it is 405. The number of new madrasas of every kind that have been founded in the fifteen-year reign of the sulṭān is two thousand. Along with that, the number of students in schools and colleges continues to grow so much that the educational progress report of the preceding year has no relation to the report of the succeeding year. In the lecture on the general progress of the Turks that Professor Vámbéry gave several years ago, the number of students at the Maktab al-Ḥuqūq [Legal College] was reported as three hundred. But when I was in Constantinople, there were 1,200 students present in this college. During my stay in Egypt, I read in Cairo's famous newspaper *al-Muwayyad* that "When the present sulṭān took the reins of the government in hand, the expenses in education were three lakh pounds annually.[26] But now they are eight lakh pounds annually." This amount is equivalent to one crore twenty lakh of our region.

Inviting Students. In truth, the sulṭān has a strange and wondrous attachment to education. The Civil College and the Legal College, which are the

* from *Qāmūs al-Islām* [This footnote first appears in the second edition.]

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renowned colleges of Constantinople, were established by the sulṭān himself. [46] The lauded gentleman has such regard for these colleges that he has come to inspect them in person several times. During the time that I was in Constantinople, the lauded gentleman invited the students of all the major colleges to a royal banquet. Kāghaż-khānah [Kağıthane] is a famous place to visit in Constantinople where once a week there is a gathering of spectators.[27] This place was suggested and selected for the banquet and the order was given that the students of each college be called there in turn. First the Military College, then the Civil College (Civil Service College) and the students of other colleges were invited. As the students walked from the college, a royal band played in front of them in accordance with the order of the sulṭān. Because the sulṭān himself could not participate in these assemblies by reason of state considerations, a wazīr always participated in the banquet on his behalf and conveyed the salaam of the sulṭān to the students. At that time, the students would cry out *bādshāhim choq yashā* (meaning may our emperor live for a very long time) with great passion and sincerity of feeling.[28]

In the branch of education, an extremely beneficial invention that recently took place at the special suggestion of the sulṭān is the founding of the Maktab al-ʿAshāyir [Tribal College].[29] Although at this time education is progressing in all the Ottoman regions, up to now, the tribes of Arabia were nearly entirely deprived of this beneficence, the reason for which was their own heedlessness and bedouin quality. The sulṭān gave the order to found a college especially for the Arab tribes and, along with it, a large and well-ordered boarding house. During the time of my stay, farmans were issued in the name of rulers and governors that boys from the esteemed tribes of Arabs in Ḥijāz [Hejaz], Yaman [Yemen], Diyarbakr [Diyarbakır], Baṣrah [Basra], Baghdād [Baghdād], Ṭarābulus al-Gharb [Tripoli], Ḥalab [Aleppo], Mauṣil [Mosul], and Shām [Syria], be selected and sent. [47] The sulṭān approved that their expenses of every kind be paid by the government. On 12 Rabīʿ al-Awwal 1310 [October 4, 1892], it was opened with great glory and magnificence and inaugural ceremonies were performed. One cannot find the equal of such an outstanding effort for the training and cultural refinement of the Arabs in all Islamic history.

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The Dār al-Shafaqah Madrasa. Even more proof of royal generosity is to be found in the Dār al-Shafaqah [Darüşşafaka], which has been established especially for orphans.[30] One thousand orphans receive education in this madrasa, and all of them are boarders. The burden of the food, clothing, and all other necessary expenses of this enormous group does not fall on the Department of Education, but rather on the Great Sulṭān himself.

Major Colleges and Schools. Among the colleges and schools, the ones that are most worthy of mention are these:

The Royal Military College The Imperial College The Civil College	I saw these colleges myself and have obtained detailed information regarding their method of education, and so on. For this reason, I shall include them under a separate heading later.
The Legal College, meaning College of Law	The following subjects are taught at this college: fiqh; principles of fiqh; Roman law; law of commerce; principles of trial; punishments; maritime law; political economy, meaning the politics of cities; the laws of the sultanates of Europe; briefly, the history of the creation of law and its developments, period by period. [48] The total number of students is 1,200, among whom 600 are boarders. Those educated here can become a *munṣif* and a *ṣadr al-ṣudūr*.[31] The period of instruction is four years.
The Engineering College	The period of education is six years. This is similar to Roorkee College.[32]
The Language College	German, French, Greek, Armenian, Latin, Italian, and Russian languages are taught in it.

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The College of Industries, meaning technical school	The yearly expense is 8,250 pounds, that is, 123,750 rupees. The number of students is 240 and all are orphan boys. Their expenses are paid by the fund of the madrasah itself. Up to now, blacksmithing and carpentry were taught in it, but in the past year the secretary of the madrasa, Taufīq Bey Āfandī, requested that the work of machines be taught.
Deputy College	This college has been established on extremely excellent principles. In the previous period, it was not stipulated for the muftīs and qāẓīs who were appointed to pass a test in a particular course of instruction of any kind. Now the rule has been set that a person who is not educated at this college cannot be appointed to *sharʿī* [Islamic legal] posts. This method [49] has completely obstructed the path to appointments by recommendation. Education in fiqh takes place at an extremely high level at this college. Several things of modern education, too, have been added to bring about familiarity with the necessities of the present age.
Maritime College	Education in navigation takes place here.
Agricultural College	.. ..

Noteworthy Matters Related to the System of Education

A few points related to the method of education are especially noteworthy.

(1) The Compulsoriness of French. That in nearly all colleges and schools, French is compulsory, the result of which is that one cannot find even

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an ordinary person educated in modern learning who is unfamiliar with French.

(2) Education in Science and the Arts. In all major colleges, education in physics, chemistry, geology, and so on, is compulsory, and practical exercise is given in these sciences. The instruments of these subjects are available in abundance in every college for this purpose.

(3) Education of the Highest Order in History. Education in history is of the highest order. I saw the course of the Civil College. It is in six thick volumes, in which, in addition to other regions, there is a detailed history of Europe in addition to other countries. Along with that, the great virtue is that it contains discussion and refutation of the errors about Islamic history that many authors of Europe have made.

(4) Education in All Modern Sciences Takes Place through the Turkish Language. Apart from the Imperial College, in which Christian students are in abundance, in all other remaining madrasas, [50] arts and sciences of every kind are taught in the regional language, meaning Turkish. All modern sciences have been translated into Turkish and continue to be so from time to time. Although it is debatable whether or not translation is a superior means of education, and the great renowned theorists of Hindustan have taken the negative position in this debate, the debate is probably particular to Hindustan, where the regional language is not the language of governance. The Turkish language is the language of the sultanate, and in the entire world one cannot find an example of a sultanate that has progressed having acquired arts and sciences in the language of another nation. The progress of England began at a time when the arts and sciences were transferred into English from Latin, and there is no doubt that if Turkey's progress, too, is possible, then it can only happen by means of the regional language.

(5) The System of Boarding. The thing that is most valuable and respectable in the matter of education and training is the boarding system. The reality is that Turkey can claim with extreme pride that there can be no

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better system of boarding than the one that it has adopted. There are boarding houses attached to all the major colleges, and a great many students live in them, but the rule is observed that food, clothing, fashion, living space, and appointments should all be uniform, and that there should be no suspicion of differences in rank in the condition of the students. The cost of clothing is taken along with the rent for boarding and the fees for food, and the clothes of the students are prepared by the college itself. All the students eat at tables and chairs, and extreme care is taken for good manners, cleanliness, and ceremony in all things. The amount of fees is no less than five pounds per year in any college, [51] and in the Imperial College it is forty pounds, meaning six hundred rupees.

It is the wondrous estimable generosity of the Turks that despite the excessiveness of the fees, the poor are not deprived of the benefit of these colleges. In every college, there is a considerable number of poor students. So much assistance is given to them on behalf of wealthy Turks that they can pay all the expenses of the college. At the Imperial College, the fees for which are forty pounds per year, two hundred students are poor and less fortunate. Among them, amīrs and members of the government pay the fees of 150 students, and the sulṭān himself bestows those of fifty from his own pocket. The effect of this is that on the grounds of the college no one can distinguish in any way that such-and-such a student is poor and less fortunate. The uniformity of the students produces an extremely powerful idea of unity and nationhood among them, and for the poor, obtaining the society of the upper class produces in them the material of ambitiousness and high aspiration. In the major colleges of Europe, there is the great shortcoming that less fortunate people do not receive much benefit from their munificence. The Turks have taken measures to redress and guard against this loss, and have done so extremely nicely.

Seeing this manner of boarding, I would recall my own academy and would mourn the different ranks in its boarding house. But my lament was in fact not at the state of the college, but rather at those greats of the nation to whom God has given wealth and fortune but not the guidance to endeavor, by means of their own generosity, that in our educational institutions, the poor and the powerful appear at the same high level. I hereby declare that the thing that is most necessary, [52] and extremely necessary,

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in our national college is that the dress, fashion, food, living space, and furniture of all the students be made entirely one and the same, and that the different strata that remain in the college today be completely erased. If not, then there is no soul of nationhood in the college.

Student Dress. There is another novelty in the colleges and schools here, and it is extremely beneficial and effective. It is that on the collar of the coat of every student, the name of the college in which he is being educated is embroidered in golden thread. The letters of the silken thread are raised and of the highest order in accordance with the Naskh script. If you go to the thoroughfares of the colleges and schools at around four o'clock, a wondrous, enchanting sight appears. Whole crowds of students emerge from the madrasas, divide into numerous ranks, and walk with such order and regulation that one might say a regulated army is marching. The rosy, pale complexion of the boys, the black coat over it, and the golden monogram of the college on the collar of the coats seems so attractive that it is beyond description.

In addition to decoration and adornment, grandeur and majesty, a great benefit from this practice is that when the students step out into the market for recreation, they cannot engage in any inappropriate behavior. The dress of the college, which is compulsory to be worn at all times, causes one to recognize that they are students. Thus, they have no choice but to be mindful of the reputation of the college. Furthermore, if some boy participates in some disagreeable company or is guilty of any indecency, a policeman will grab him and bring him to the school or college where he is educated.

Many Students Living in Each Room. There appears to be one defect in the boarding system here, and it is that there are not separate rooms; [53] instead, there is one large hall for fifty or sixty boys in which beds are laid out according to their number. At the headboard of each bed is a small cabinet, which holds ordinary clothing and books. When I initially saw the boarding houses here, on the whole the thought of their contemptibleness occurred to me, especially because the ceremonious and well-appointed

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rooms of the academy were before my eyes. But with further research, I learned that this method is not devoid of benefit. Although there is no doubt that the principle reason for this deficiency is the abundance of the population and the unavailability of sufficient land, with respect to the benefits that cannot be obtained without this particular method, it would not be inappropriate to claim that such had been done intentionally and such alone was appropriate.

The Uniformity of the Social Life of All Boarders. The extremely beneficial use that has been made of this method is that the daily life of all boarders has been fixed upon uniform principles. For example, as dawn breaks, the watchmen, who walk around the sleeping rooms all night, awaken the boarders. Spouts have been attached to the wall in accordance with the number of boys, and beneath them a small watercourse has been made. All the boys went and sat together there. There is such commitment to the boys' arriving together that in some colleges there is a machine that turns to open the mouths of all the spouts together. When all the boys arrive, a servant turns the machine, and, when the allotted time has passed, closes it. If any boy comes late, he will have to turn back because a great deal of water cannot be wasted for just one person. Having washed their hands and faces, [54] all the boys go and sit on benches in the reading room (which is reserved for reading books, and where a supervising instructor remains present), and occupy themselves by memorizing lessons or studying their readings. All the students get up together and go into the dining room. After the meal, the school bell rings, and everyone goes and sits in the college rooms. At night, too, all the students read in a single room (reading room) and, when it is time to sleep, all stand up together and move into the sleeping room. In sum—arising from sleep, washing hands and face, studying lessons, eating, performing namāz, and at ten o'clock at night, each going and lying in his respective bed—the students are required do all these tasks together. By this method, maintain a schedule becomes a habit, and, gradually, it becomes second nature. For this method, it is necessary to arrange for the fifty to sixty boys to live in a single room. Otherwise, arrangement for all tasks to be performed

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together cannot be made in separate rooms. Our college, Ẓaḥūr Ḥusain Wārḏ, which was just recently established, has been established on this principle.[33]

A Few Things Are Still Lacking in the Progress of Education. Concerning the breadth and progress of education, although such care has been taken, because the new method of education has only recently been put into effect, there is a lack of a great many things, which, it is hoped, will gradually be fulfilled. Among them the fact that there is no debating club or intellectual-scientific society in any college, rather, in the entire city. For this reason, the students do not have the opportunity to develop abilities in public speaking. As a result, those who have obtained degrees from these colleges cannot give a lecture or speech on any topic in a public gathering. The effect of this is also that in the educated group, the liveliness, freethinking, ambitiousness, and high-mindedness that are the requisites of the new education have not been produced. [55]

One very great defect is that the existence of large colleges and schools is limited to the walls of the seat of the caliphate. Although in large cities madrasas have been established in abundance, they are generally elementary or rushdiyah, meaning madrasas of the middle grade. As far as I am aware, in Beirut, Damascus, Aleppo, and Jerusalem there is not even one intellectual-scientific madrasa to which the word *college* can truly be applied.

Even greater is the regret that all the colleges and academies of Constantinople that I mentioned are paid for by the government. The nation has not yet given this any attention. That is, in such a large capital of the sultanate, there is not even one national college. No government, no matter how powerful and wealthy it is, can be the guarantor of the intellectual-scientific needs of the entire country. And even if it were, it is not very beneficial. The mental and spiritual powers of a nation whose every need the government fulfills become dead and useless. To the magnificent intellectual workshops spread throughout Europe, the nation has contributed the largest share. The famous universities of England, Cambridge and Oxford, were founded by national efforts alone, and to this day they have not seen fit to bear the burden of government favor.

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After this summary report, we write the detailed circumstances of several colleges.

Military College [Maktab-i Ḥarbiyah]

This is a very large college, rather, it is a very large university, of which the Turks are proud, and, in truth, it is deserving of this pride. Although military education is to some extent detached from the sense of technical education, and in this regard [56] it was apparently not befitting to mention the Military College under the heading of "Progress of Education," still, instruction in physics, chemistry, mathematics, and all the branches of medicine especially, in addition to the military sciences, is given to such an extent in this college that we cannot call it outside the sphere of technical education. Sulṭān Maḥmūd founded this college in 1250 Hijrī [1834–35]. Relative to this time, a good deal of progress has taken place in the building, and the curriculum of education has become so extensive and superior that one might say it has ceased to be a college at all.

The number of military madrasas subordinate to this college is 37, among which 18 are iʿdādiyah and 27 are rushdiyah, in which a total of 9,224 students are acquiring an education.

Details will be learned from the following chart:

TYPE OF MADRASA	MADRASAS IN THE CAPITAL		MADRASAS IN THE DISTRICTS	
	Boarder	*Non-boarder*	*Boarder*	*Non-boarder*
Aʿdādī	1069	0	745	0
Rushdiyah	155	2,425	128	2,225

This college (the Military College) is a college of great magnificence and glory. Although the general rule in Constantinople is that no person can be admitted onto the grounds of a madrasa without the permission of the secretary of the madrasa, there are even more checks and controls at this madrasa. When I attempted to visit it, people said that the *irādah-i sunnah*,[34] meaning the permission of the sulṭān himself, was necessary. [57] Although ʿUṡmān Pāshā,[35] in whose service I had already had the honor of appearing at the time, could easily have had permission granted

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to me, I did not think it appropriate to trouble him for this undertaking. I was on informal terms with Ḥusain Ḥasīb Āfandī, the police commissioner. I spoke about it with him. He said, "*Dar Ḥarbiyah māżūn nīstam*."[36] Left with no other choice, I had to rely on my own effort. I had already learned that the secretary of the Military College was Żakī Pāshā, who is an extremely capable and highly educated person. I thought that I should meet him myself without any mediation. Shaikh ʿAlī Ẓabyān, too, was of the same opinion. Thus, we both went to the home of the aforementioned pāshā.

Meeting Żakī Pāshā to Visit the Military College. As it happened, he had gone out. The person said, "Please, just wait a short while, he may come back soon." Meanwhile, he arrived. He turned to face us as he stepped out of the carriage. Shaikh ʿAlī Ẓabyān and I were both in Arab dress. Although there was a silken turban on my head and a golden band around my waist, because of my *qafṭān* and my robe, I appeared by my overall appearance to be an Arab. The aforementioned pāshā was in an extreme hurry at the time. As soon as he said "Salām ʿalaik," he thrust his hand into his pocket and took out some *majīdīs* (Turkish coin). First I was severely shocked. Then I thought, "*Naʿūż billāh*! He thinks we are beggars, like common Arabs!" With that thought I became extremely irritated, and along with the irritation, angered, too. I shouted, "*Shū hāżā*? *Mā jīnā li-hāżā. Lisnā min al-fuqarā*'!"[37] meaning, "What is this? We have not come for this! We are not faqīrs!" Although the pāshā did not understand Arabic, he understood from the look on my face and the tone of my words that the action had offended me. [58] He turned his attention to Shaikh ʿAlī Ẓabyān. "Why is he in a rage? And what does he want?" Shaikh ʿAlī Ẓabyān was able to speak some broken Turkish. He described the purpose and aim of my visit. The pāshā became extremely embarrassed. Along with apologies, he said, "Please, go to the upper gallery. I will come in a little while." There were some esteemed officers gathered on the upper gallery. They welcomed us with extreme reverence. Coffee came as usual. Each person was greeted in turn. When they learned that I was a resident of Hindustan and had come here for the purpose of scientific research, they became so enthralled that interest and affection were

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expressed by their every word and gesture. It was extremely unfortunate that I understood neither Turkish nor French and they could not converse in any other language. One by one, they came and sat near me, and, along with expressing affection, expressed regret that "We do not understand your language." After a little while, Żakī Pāshā sent word asking extremely politely to be excused: "I have crucial business to attend to, so I cannot come myself; but I have ordered an officer to take you on a thorough tour of the college." The name of that gentleman was Raẓā Bey, and he had the rank of *mīr-alāī* [*miralay*].[38] The pāshā's asking to be excused could not have been based on pretense. Indeed, a great many departments really are entrusted to him, and his entire day is spent making rounds. Still, there is no doubt that he felt extremely embarrassed by his behavior and this, too, was one reason for his not coming.

In learning that when ʿulamā and Sūfīs meet some amīr or officer of rank here, [59] they do so with the purpose of getting their hands on some shiny coins, my irritation with Żakī Pāshā's negative suspicion went away, but I felt great anguish at the condition of this group. I used to think that the practice of begging for offerings and oblations was exclusive to Hindustan, but, alas, there is no escape from it here, either.

Going to the Boys' Dining Room. **The Cleanliness and Fine Manners of the Boys While Eating**. To make a long story short, we went to the Military College with Raẓā Bey. There was a guard at the gate. The soldiers saluted us according to military custom. When we entered, it was not just a college, but a proper colony. Raẓā Bey first took us into his private room. A few other officers of the college were present there. We were introduced to them. As usual, coffee came. After a little while, Raẓā Bey said, "The dining bell has already rung. Come, before anything else, let me take you on a tour of the dining room." Because at that time the *ḏāʾining rūm* (dining room) and the buildings attached to it had been demolished and were being rebuilt anew, a building at some distance from the row of college buildings had been temporarily set up, and a clean and level road had been prepared from the college to the building. When the boys emerged from their rooms and headed toward the dining hall, a wondrous, heart-enchanting scene appeared before the eyes. There were thirty or forty lines

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of five or six boys each, and they were going along with such order and regularity that you might say a regulated army was marching. Their fashion and dress was entirely uniform, and because all the boys were Turks or Syrian Arabs, there was not much difference in their complexion and appearance. The astonishing thing is that although no officer was with the group, nor did they know about our coming, not a single movement of theirs was opposed to order and arrangement, and there was absolutely no sign of noise and shouting. When we entered the room, all the boys were already seated at the table. The hall was extremely large and beautiful, and there was gilt ornamentation on the ceiling. [60] There were foods of two or three kinds and, in accordance with Turkish custom, one large dish was set in the middle of each group of four boys. There were no forks or knives. There were only spoons. But the boys ate with such fine manners that neither did their hands become soiled nor could a stain have appeared anywhere on the tablecloth. The boys are probably held to strict standards of cleanliness. It seemed as if the four or five hundred boys who were present in the hall had changed their clothes just before coming. Wherever we passed, the boys would stand up and say, "*Tafaẓẓal yā maulānā*."[39] At their insistence, I ate a few bites. The food was not bad. But I was looking for Hindustani *qormah*. Where was that to be found here?

Having left the dining room, we strolled around for a little while until the college bell rang and the boys moved into the lecture room.

Lecture Rooms. The lecture rooms (rooms of instruction) are not of the same form as those of our Hindustan. Stretching into the distance in a straight line are a great many rooms whose form is like that of common buildings. The professor sits on a high platform. There was even a wooden railing around some platforms. Whichever room Raẓā Bey (and we along with him) entered, a boy would stand up and say the word *baq* with a loud cry.[40] With that cry, all the boys would stand up and greet us with a gesture of the hand. I learned that whenever an officer of the college comes, the boys show him respect in this way. Raẓā Bey introduced us to all the professors, but unfortunately we could not understand anyone's language. [61]

The hammam, printing house, draftsman house, and a great many buildings of this kind that are on the grounds of the college—we toured

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them all. There are so many of these buildings that we walked around continuously for nearly two hours before no more remained. The room for instruction in anatomy is extremely large and the implements for anatomical procedures have been collected in abundance. I had never seen examples of cartography and drawing like the ones that I saw here. The innovation that I saw in the printing house was that maps of geography were printed having been made on stone instead of paper. The map that was being prepared at the time was extremely dense and fine, and in truth was work of painstaking detail.

The Moral Character of the Professors. For the amusement of the students, there is a beautiful pond in which fish of different colors live, and benches and chairs are set up all around. For professors and teachers, there is a separate pond a short distance away. Because we had become tired while walking, we took a breather there, and kept company for a while. Rajab Āfandī, who is appointed to teach Turkish composition and knows Persian, joined us on the final tour. I could speak with the esteemed officers of the college through him without any trouble. I cannot describe the quality of the kind manners and Islamic affection with which the professors and students treated me. It was extremely regrettable that the day on which I saw the college was not a day of practical instruction. For this reason, military exercises, that is, drills, marksmanship, horsemanship, preparing trenches, preparing temporary fortifications—we could not see anything of this kind. We could have gone to see them on some other day, but the college was so far from our residence that [62] we could not find the nerve again.

Numerous Branches of Instruction. There are numerous branches of instruction at this college.

(1) Military Officers. Military Officers. This is the highest level, and its duration of study is three years. It has two branches, technical [*fannī*] and military [*ʿaskarī*]. In the technical, the following subjects are taught: land division and cosmography; optics; machines; architecture; the French, German, and Russian languages; the besiegement of fortresses and principles

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of battle; military telegraph; posts, salaries, and pensions of the military officers; military inventions; practical studies; forms of architecture; the roads of the Ottoman territories and the railway lines of all the territories of Europe; the art of heavy weaponry; the science of geology; the organization and principles of the militaries of Europe; the famous battles of the world and the causes of victory and defeat and the details their occurrence with respect to military principles; geometry; algebra; *palūghrāfiyā*;[41] the art of light weaponry; writing; the history of the art of war; drawing.

Most of the same subjects are also taught in the military[42] branch. Along with this, there are also several modern subjects. Basic instruction in most of the subjects that are taught at both of these levels has already taken place in the rushdiyah and iʿdādiyah. At these levels, they are merely completed, and this is the reason that so many different subjects can be acquired in three years. From the rushdiyah to this level, the total period of education is ten years.

(2) Cavalry. Education in Cavalry. Its duration of instruction is three years, and, in addition to practical exercises, instruction is given in the following subjects: traditional geometry; theoretical and practical palūghrāfiyā; the French, German, and Russian languages; [63] chemistry; the art of weaponry; military inventions; and military geography.

(3) Infantry. Duration of education, three years. In this, in addition to practical exercises, there is education in military geography; the art of weaponry; German, French, and Russian languages; military inventions; light fortifications; and health care.

(4) Baiṭārī, Meaning the Medical Treatment of Animals. *Baiṭārī*, meaning animal medicine. Period of education, four years. Subjects of instruction: common diseases; the art of birth; the art of equestrianism; internal diseases; inborn diseases; the art of surgery; external diseases; the French language; writing; organic chemistry; uncompounded medicine; dissection and anatomy, physiology; botany; biology; inorganic chemistry; and the science of geology, mineralogy, and mining. In all four of these divisions, nearly six hundred students are under instruction, and after obtaining

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certificates, they are given official posts as per rankings. Beneath them are the classes of iʿdādiyah and rushdiyah, whose total period of instruction is seven years, and instruction is given in history, geography, arithmetic and accounting, geometry, machine work, and subjects of this kind. All together, the students who acquire an education in the different branches of this college are 1,500 in number, among whom 1,000 are boarders.

The Number of Professors and Teachers. The professors, assistant professors, and teachers are eighty-seven, among whom most reside right on the premises of the college. Most of the professors are educated at the highest level and are esteemed officers. Among them, six people hold the rank of pāshā, whose names are Ṡarwat Pāshā, secretary; Fāyiq Pāshā, professor of organic chemistry; Hizbar Pāshā, professor of cavalry education; Tafawwuq Pāshā, professor of geology; Shākir Pāshā, professor of the elements of war; and ʿUṡmān Pāshā, professor of German. [64] Nine professors have obtained the rank of mīr-ālāī.

Imperial College [Maktab-i Sulṭānī]

This, too, is an old college, and is more distinguished than all colleges except the Military College.[43] It is located in Ghalaṭah-sarāe [Galatasaray], where European merchants mostly reside, and for this reason there are more Christian boys in it than in all other colleges.

I regret that at the time that I saw this college, it was a time of holiday, and apart from two or three officers, meaning the secretary and assistant secretary, and so on, no other officer was present.[44] The college building is two stories. The boarding house and lecture rooms are all on the upper level. There is an extremely large room for instruction in biology, in which there are many dead animals of every kind and very large skeletons of animals. I had never seen the skeleton of a whale before. For experiments in chemistry and electricity, expensive instruments have been made abundantly available.

I very much liked that an extremely large hall is furnished for ill boarders in which there are many beds, and so on, and numerous attendants are present at all times. In this way, the doctor finds ease in diagnosing and

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treating the boys, and he can see all the ill at the same time. Otherwise, if there were separate rooms, then coming to see each ill person one at a time and sufficiently visiting and making inquiries after each patient would be seriously difficult.

The expense of this college is eighteen thousand pounds, meaning two lakh, seventy thousand rupees annually, [65] but this also includes the amount of the scholarships for poor students. The collective number of students is eight hundred, of whom most are boarders. The room of the sleeping quarters of the boarders is extremely large. It is magnificent and of pleasant atmosphere. A summary of a few items from the regulations of the boarding house is included below:

1. The food, clothes, bedding, books, paper, pens, and so on, of all boarders will be provided by the college.
2. Forty pounds per year (six hundred rupees) will be taken as fees from the boarder.
3. Such students will also be admitted who can pay two-thirds or one-third of the fees, or who cannot pay them at all, but their number will be fixed, which will be determined at the beginning of each year following an inquiry by the office of director of public instruction. (One should remember that the remainder of the fees of such students are paid by the sulṭān and the amīrs of the city, and for this reason, with respect to food, dress, and furniture, and so on, no difference of any kind between them and the fortunate students can be sensed.)
4. At the time of admission, 15 pounds, meaning 225 rupees, will be taken from every student for the sake of clothing.
5. The fees of students who do not stay in the boarding house at night are twenty pounds per year and cannot be reduced under any circumstances.
6. The fees of nonboarders are ten pounds per year and cannot be reduced under any circumstances. [66]
7. Boarders shall receive permission to go home only once per week, and when they come and go it is necessary for a trusted servant to be with them.

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8. No boarder can keep more than ten qurush (one and one quarter rupees) with him in one week.

With respect to education, the distinctive quality that is in this college is that all the arts and sciences are taught in French, and for this reason most of the professors are either French or German. Along with that, education in the Turkish language is of an extremely high level. Education in Arabic and Persian, too, is compulsory, though it is not at the highest level. The remaining languages, Greek, Armenian, English, German, Italian, and Latin, are included in the curriculum, and many students study them, too. But education in them is optional, not compulsory.

The subjects that are taught in Turkish, Persian, and Arabic, apart from the literary sciences and the Glorious Quran are as follows: tenets, fiqh, ethics, history of the Ottoman Empire, recitation of the Quran, and hadith and Quranic exegesis. But education in recitation and hadith and Quranic exegesis begin in the fourth year and take place only once per week. French is taught from the very beginning and continues regularly until the conclusion of instruction, meaning seven years. Along with syntax, morphology, and literature, the principles of composition and the art of rhetoric are taught up to the highest level, and the following subjects, too, are taught by means of this language: arithmetic and accounting, algebra, geography, geometry, chemistry, biology, physics, botany, [67] electricity, acoustics, geology, engineering design, and imitative design.

The Number of Professors and Teachers. The total number of teachers and professors is seventy-four, among whom twenty-six are German and French, and the remainder are Turks.

The reality is that with respect to the extensiveness of the building, the provision of intellectual-scientific instruments, the breadth of instruction, and the excellence of administration, no college in all of Constantinople is more excellent. Of course, it is regrettable that the people receiving education in the high classes are mostly Christians. The number of Muslims is very small. Shaikh ʿAbd al-Fattāḥ Āfandī kindly gave me the current annual report of the results of examinations. In it, all the people who passed examinations at the highest level are mostly Christian. I bear no

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malice toward the progress of Christians. By God I do not. But I certainly feel anguish at the decline of Muslims.

Civil College [Maktab-i Mulkiyah]

This college, which is the civil service college of this place, has been established by the sulṭān himself, and the lauded gentleman pays special attention to it. Thus, he has already twice graced it with his presence for inspection.

The Subjects in Which Instruction Is Included in the Curriculum. **The Number of Students**. Before, there were five levels in it, three lower and two upper. Thus, the period of instruction was five years. But two more levels have been added in order to establish a high standard, and the total duration of education has been set at seven years. Along with French, education in the Greek and Armenian languages is also compulsory in this college. Arabic and Persian, too, are included in the curriculum of education, but are not compulsory. [68] The subjects that are taught are as follows: history and geography; electricity, and so on; physics; political economy; the principles of law; the laws of Europe. Education in all these subjects is at an extremely high level. I saw the history course myself. It was in six thick volumes. Those educated at this college are appointed to very high offices. Accordingly, so far more than two hundred have already been appointed to regional offices, some of whom hold offices of an extremely high rank. The number of students who are receiving education in the college at this time is more than six hundred.

The Cleanliness and Furnishings of the Dining Room. I toured the college thoroughly. Although the manager of the college, who is an esteemed Turk, does not understand Arabic, because there was an interpreter with me, we were able to communicate without difficulty. In the colleges here, I generally noticed and liked very much that the manager was a man of esteemed rank, and respect and dignity were expressed by his social comportment. The manager's room, too, was organized and well-arranged, as usual. When I arrived at the college, it was break hour, and the boys

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were busy playing cricket. After a little while, when the boys came back to class, the manager ṣāḥib took me on a tour of all the rooms of the college. The dining room was arranged with extreme propriety. There was an extremely clean cloth spread on the table, and elaborate dishes had been beautifully set out. The carafes, which were in accordance with the number of students, were generally made of glass and, one might say, served to decorate the table. In the room for education in chemistry, and so on, there were instruments of the highest degree, [69] and they were in abundance. In the same series of buildings there is a very small masjid. Its building is not very remarkable, but because a Turkish carpet of extremely superior grade was spread inside and out, it seemed beautiful and adorned. On one side, an excellent fragment of writing in Naskh script was hanging on the wall. By inquiry, I learned that it was written by the hand of the deceased Sulṭān ʻAbd al-ʻAzīz.[45] It is extremely excellent script.

Preparation for Namāz. Meanwhile, it came time for midday prayers. The Muslim boys (there is no shortage of Christian boys, too, here) prepared for namāz. They were generally wearing coat and pants, and their performing ablutions with respect and resolution in that dress, and going into the masjid line by line with dignity and reverence left a wondrous impression on my heart. The truth is that if Muslims make progress having been freed from religious influence, then decline is a thousand degrees better than such progress. After namāz, a sermon took place for a little while, but very few boys participated in it.

Classical Education and Classical Madrasas

As we have already written above, education among the Turks began along with the start of the sultanate. This was the very education that today is remembered by the name "classical education." No doubt, in some era it was at the highest level. Thus, the original writings of Afžal al-Dīn Khūnajī, ʻAllāmah Qūshjī, Chalabī, Khwājah-zādah, Ḥājjī Khalīfah, and so on, exist even today as monuments to it.[46] But the present education has reached such an extreme of baseness that the education in our Hindustan is a blessing in comparison with it. The thought that laid waste to all my

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joys and happinesses [70] on this journey was the miserable state of classical education. This issue is touched upon in Hindustan, too, these days, and anguish and regret are felt generally at the miserable state of classical education, but my regret was a regret of a different kind. The anguish and regret that the new-educated of our country express at the old education is in reality not anguish at all, but rather derision and delight in the suffering of others. Although I like new education, and I like it from my heart, I am still a staunch supporter of old education, and my thought is that old education is necessary, and seriously necessary, for maintaining the nationhood of Muslims. Along with that, when I see that the way this education is put into practice is completely profitless and meaningless, I cannot help but feel extreme anguish. In Hindustan, I managed to endure by the thought that a lack of patronage and resources for something that is not under the government's shadow of benevolence is a natural matter. However, seeing this situation in Constantinople, Syria, and Egypt, I often felt severe anguish.

The Number of Students. The Livelihood of the Students. Boarding. To make a long story short, classical education is abundantly prevalent here, and because students of this kind are clearly recognized by their fashion and dress, one can easily gain an estimate of their abundance in masjids and common thoroughfares. Some people told me that in Constantinople itself their number is no less than twenty thousand. Their means of living is not only regrettable, but shocking. In all the (classical) madrasas of this place, there is a continuous holiday of three months which begins with auspicious Ramẓān. In these months, the students leave Constantinople and acquire zakāt in the villages and rural towns. This zakāt is their income for the entire year. [71] In some madrasas—and they are few and far between—they receive some bread, too, but there is absolutely no arrangement for clothes, and so on. For living, there are the madrasas' rooms, which are extremely small, cramped, and dark.

The layout of the madrasas is as follows. There is a very small courtyard, and on three sides of it there are small rooms. In the courtyard, there is a cistern where they sit and perform ablutions. The rooms in the large madrasas that the sulṭāns (Muḥammad Fātiḥ and Sulaimān, and so on)

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built and are still standing today are extensive and spacious, but the rooms of all other madrasas are so small and confined that one suffocates as one goes inside. Despite all these things, I should acknowledge the generosity of the Turks in promoting knowledge because, even if of a low degree, at least hundreds of intellectual-scientific monuments exist today, and the fair truth is that with respect to the period which these madrasas memorialize, they are not unsuited to the culture and civilization of the time. In our Hindustan, which, with its vastness and breadth, is itself a clime in its own right, not a single intellectual-scientific monument of the six-hundred-year period of the rule of Islam is found.

Curriculum of Instruction. The biggest complaint about classical education is that the standard of education has been set extremely low. There is no trace of the science of literature. *Īsāghūjī* and *Shamsiyah* are the concluding books in logic and philosophy.[47] It is difficult to find a madrasa in which the *ṣiḥāḥ sittah* are taught.[48] The science of meaning and rhetoric, and the principles of jurisprudence, too, are in the same state. Of course, there is a great deal of attention paid to fiqh, but education in it, too, is not innovative.[49] Rather, it is extremely common and imitative. [72] I came to know several maulawīs. They always talked about such trivial and general issues that I felt both surprise and disappointment.

The Scientific State of the Turks

The Scientific State of the Turks. **The Translation of Books into the Turkish Language**. If the regional languages in the parts of the world where Islam ruled did not completely disappear, then it certainly happened that their scientific status was snatched from them and given to Arabic. Although the regional languages of Hindustan, Persia, Spain, and Afghanistan were completely different, Arabic alone remained the intellectual-scientific language at each place, and is so even so now. The Turks, too, are no exception to this general influence. But they are distinguished among all Islamic nations by the particular characteristic that, along with submission to Arabic, they also did not allow their own language to be deprived of intellectual-scientific treasure. In the age in which the classical

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sciences ruled, an entire series of those sciences existed in the Turkish language, and still does. I saw with eyes of wonder that the histories of Ibn-i Khaldūn, Ṭabarī, Ibn-i Khallikān, Maqrīzī, and so on, which are extremely thick books, and among which some are in seven volumes each—translations of all of them exist in Turkish.[50] By contrast, one cannot find even a single example of this in Fāris or Afghanistan. If mention were made of translated books apart from original compositions in Turkish, one would have to prepare a large catalogue.

A Turkish friend of mine, who is an expert in numerous languages, recounted to me as a factual account [73] (not a boastful one) that histories, dramas, novels, travelogues, and books on stylistics and rhetoric in the French language have been translated in such abundance into Turkish that it is no exaggeration to say that France's entire field of literary studies and has entered the Turkish language. Hundreds of books of modern arts and sciences, too, have already been translated, and it is for this reason that in all the colleges of Turkey, except for the Imperial College, education in these arts and sciences takes place in the Turkish language, and takes place at the highest level.

Historical Writings in Turkish. The practice of original, independent writing, too, is not lacking. Books on all the branches of the arts and sciences are being written in abundance, and the books that are taught in colleges and schools are generally original writings, not translations. How could I have found the time and opportunity to acquire acquaintance with all modern original writings? Of course, in accordance with my taste, I did look at books on history and *rijāl*, on the basis of which I can say that, besides Arabic, such historical material does not exist in any language of Asia.[51] Rather, in one respect, it is superior to Arabic. All the histories in the Arabic language are a collection of simple facts and events, and whatever effort and care there is, it is only related to the principles of narrative transmission. By contrast, Turkish histories are written in accordance with the principles and rules that are the principles of historical philosophy, and on the basis of which Europe has taken this subject to the peak of perfection. I took a cursory look at the history book that is included in the course of studies at the Civil College. In all points of fact, it has carefully

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considered the chain of causation, made judgments by weighing evidence, and employed discernment and criticism throughout. Along with that, at the end of each period of rule, the civilizational, moral, and intellectual-scientific state of the period has been shown in detail. [74]

Biography, Meaning *Rijāl* and *Tarājim*.[52] *Qāmūs al-aʿlām*. There is an extremely useful series of biographies the name of which is Mashāhīr-i Rijāl [The Famous among Men]. They have written information about the lives of famous people of achievement extremely finely and in a pleasing style. Unfortunately, this series was left incomplete. Otherwise, it would have been an extremely useful collection. A special kind of very large encyclopedia, the name of which is *Qāmūs al-aʿlām* [Dictionary of the Sciences], is in preparation these days.[53] In addition to biographical studies of men, it also includes entries on famous cities, buildings, and historical places. A list of the writings in Arabic and French, and so on, on which the author has relied is included with it. I read the names of the Arabic books. They are extremely rare and reliable books and are not available anywhere except Constantinople. This book is arranged in alphabetical order and, at this time, has come to the letter *ze*.

The Progress of Geography. Along with history, geography, too, has enjoyed extreme progress. A great many useful books have been written. So many large maps and charts of the entire world and different populated areas have been prepared that it is unlikely that so many exist in any part of the world other than Europe. The maps are extremely standardized, beautiful, and elegant, and are not inferior to the maps prepared in Europe in any regard. Turks have a special interest in this field.

The Abundance of Turkish Writings. I cannot tell you the sufficient standard of the majority of Turkish writings, but one time in the office of the Department of Education, I took a cursory look at the catalogue of books that were published in Constantinople alone in just the period of a single month. Their number was nearly two thousand. Although among them were also books in Armenian, Greek, French, and other languages, [75] the Turkish writings had the largest share. Still, it is regrettable that among

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them novels and dramas were more numerous, and this is the same affliction that is spread throughout our unfortunate region.

Turkish Literature. Turkish literature, too, has made extreme progress, and it is a strange thing that, in many characteristics, it resembles our Urdu. Turkey's classical literature, in the manner of classical Urdu, was colorful, elaborate, filled with metaphors, and restricted to rhyme. But now, like new Urdu, there is regard for simplicity, clarity, and an apropos quality, and new original compositions are written in exactly this style. The inventors or masters of this new style are Kamāl Bey, Ḥāmid Bey, Professor Nājī, and so on.[54] When I began studying Turkish, I intended to read classical compositions. But my friends, who were also my teachers, said that the difference between classical and modern Turkish is that of the earth and the sky, and learning the classical language would not be sufficient for the new language. Professor Vámbéry,[55] in the lecture that he has given on the present civilization of the Turks, having compared classical and modern Turkish, has acknowledged with astonishment the attractiveness, clarity, and simplicity of the present language.

Turkish Writers. Among Turkish writers, these are the names of the most renowned and distinguished figures of the day: Aḥmad Midḥat, Jaudat Pāshā, Professor Nājī, ʿAbū al-Ẓiyā, Sāmī, ʿAlī Nuṣrat. Professor Nājī is a poet, and you might say he is the poet of the capital. There is no office of *malik al-shuʿarā* here.[56] Otherwise, he would have received this title. Still, he is considered the poet of the capital. Aḥmad Midḥat is a major author.[57] [76] He has written an extremely detailed history of the Turkish government, which is in twelve volumes. In response to the objections that are made against Islam, he has written a detailed book, which is in three volumes and is named *Mudāfaʿah-i Islāmiyah*.[58] In addition to Turkish, Farsi, and Arabic, he has mastery in the French language. He was appointed as a representative on behalf of Turkey in numerous sessions of the Oriental Conference that has been established in Europe, and in the Stockholm Conference it was he to whom official authority over the departments of Arabic, Farsi, and so on, was given. Aḥmad Jaudat Pāshā is an extremely

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esteemed person, and is a member, meaning he is a wazīr and *yāwar*, of the assembly of wazīrs.[59] His age is close to sixty or seventy, and because, along with being aged, he is weak in body and frail, he participates less in the assembly of wazīrs.[60] Among his writings, *Qawāʿid-i ʿUṡmāniyah*, which is on Turkish morphology and syntax, is included in the course. I met him. We kept company for a while. He can speak in Arabic and Persian without difficulty. He spoke to me in Arabic.[61] The great praiseworthy thing about him is that despite his wealth, power, and office of wazīrate, he lives an extremely simple life and mostly keeps busy with intellectual-scientific activities.

Newspapers and Journals. In mentioning Turkish literature, it is also necessary to discuss newspapers and monthly journals, because these things are considered a major part of literature these days. I say with regret that, in this respect, Turkish literature is in a state of baseness. Turkish-language newspapers are not few in number. There are a great many daily newspapers, and they come out with great luster and splendor. The diction, too, is very simple and polished. [77] A taste for newspapers has also spread throughout the entire region. A great number of coffeehouses are specifically for newspapers, where newspapers are always found in abundance, and for this reason they are called a *qirʾat-khānah* [reading room] instead of *qahwah-khānah* [coffeehouse].

There is all this, but the thing that is the life of a newspaper, that is, freedom, it does not exist here at all. There is nothing in all the newspapers except for official ordinances and everyday news. The result of this is that the Turkish language is completely deprived of a political style of writing and the power of reasoned argument. And the reality is, how and by what means can loftiness of thought, power of description, force of diction, passion, and efficacy come into a language in which the element of freedom does not exist? Look at Arabic. As long as it was the period of the righteous caliphate and natures were free and headstrong, Arabic was brimming with passion and efficacy. From the time that the foundation of autocratic government was laid and the family of the Banū Umayyah trampled and crushed the freedom of Arabia with great power and force, neither that

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efficacy nor that passion remained. No doubt, because of an abundance of information, the literature of the subsequent period is extremely extensive and rich. But sift through all the writings of that period. No trace of a free style of writing, political passion, or efficacy is found.

The Reason for the Lack of Freedom in Newspapers. Along with all these things, it is necessary for me to acknowledge that the newspapers' lack of freedom is necessitated by Turkey's political circumstances. The difference of religion among the citizens, the antagonism of foreign powers, interferences by adversaries, sensationalism in the newspapers, the proximity of European governments—these are circumstances in which even the freest of free governments would do the same as Turkey has done. [78] Having seen the orders that the republican government of France just recently implemented in Tunisia concerning the freedom of newspapers, who is unjust enough to make accusations against Turkey?[62]

Obstruction in Printing Books.[63] Of course, the obstruction that exists here concerning the printing of books is somewhat objectionable. The general rule here is that when some person wants to publish a classical or modern book, the book is first presented in the Department of Information. There is a separate bureau of inspection and investigation there. The officers of this bureau read the entire book from beginning to end, and, in accordance with their report, sometimes the printing of the book is stopped, or erasure and emendation is made. The need for this rule arose because some people act in extremely bad faith in printing books. For example, when the Christians in Beirut printed *Alfāẓ al-kitābiyah*,[64] wherever there were āyats of the Pure Quran and, in accordance with Islamic practice, the headings were *qāl Allāh*[65] or *kamā fī al-Qur'ān al-majīd*,[66] they changed them everywhere and made them *kamā qīl*[67] or *kamā qāl al-Qur'ān*,[68] whereas such words about the Glorious Quran could not have issued from the pen of a Muslim. More than that, these same Christians have printed a selection of the Quran, and wherever in some āyat there is mention of an event that opposes Christian narratives, they have written in parentheses that "it is wrong and this way is correct." No doubt, an Islamic sultanate cannot tolerate interpolations of this kind, and this is the

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reason that extreme caution and investigation is employed by the sultanate when publishing books. [79]

But it is regrettable that these days its method of application has transgressed moderation. This department was established with the purpose of stopping distortion and alteration, but sometimes it has acted on distortion and alteration itself. *Sharḥ-i ʿAqāʾid-i Nasafī* was being printed in front of me in a printing house.[69] The Department of Information had censored all the text in the book in which there was discussion of the caliphate and the hadith *al-aimma min Quraish* is mentioned.[70] The people at the printing house were compelled to print this censored copy. I saw the original copy on which the Department of Information made this manipulation, and I recall that I lost control of myself because of frustration and anger at that time. These people probably made this manipulation in the passion of, in their own minds, well-wishing for the sulṭān, but if the acclaimed gentleman had been informed of it, he would never have approved of it.

As I have recounted above, the newspapers, at least, are not worthy of attention, but the magazines and monthly journals that are issued in the Turkish language are extremely valuable. The most famous and renowned among them is *Maʿārif*, which is issued weekly.[71] Articles of the highest order are always written in this journal, and the people who are masters of the modern sciences among the Turks nowadays mostly demonstrate their achievement and perfection by means of this journal. Articles are generally related to natural science and modern instruments, and no issue is without illustration. The amount of distribution is not small, either. When I inquired from the owner of the printing house, I learned that five thousand copies are issued. Apart from *Maʿārif*, there are other intellectual journals, and they are published extremely capably. [80] Among them, *Rasamlī Ghazatah*, *Muṣawwar Jahān*, and *Ṡarwat-i Funūn* have passed before my eyes.[72] In terms of paper, script, clarity, in short, in external splendor, all of these journals compete with the renowned journals of Europe.

There is no doubt that with respect to the daily progress that the arts and sciences have made in Turkey, and the abundance with which new writings continue to be published in each field, it has acquired the rank of preeminence over the entire Asian world.

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Printing Houses

The printing houses are in extreme abundance here, and they are unexcelled in fineness of script, clarity, and elegance. The Arabic script type that exists, and which is the invention of the Turkish intellectual ʿAbū al-Żiyā, is considered incomparable throughout the world.[73] Wherever Arabic books are printed in the world today, the books printed in Beirut are regarded as the most excellent. But the people in Beirut themselves recounted to me that "in fact this type is the invention of the Turks, and we are their imitators." Because Turkish books are typically printed in Constantinople, and they do not come into these regions, Beirut alone has gained general renown. It is either the effect of affluence or general appreciation that all the books printed in Constantinople are printed on extremely excellent and expensive paper, as opposed to Egypt and Hindustan, where paper for cleaning shoes is used for books. There is no other reason for this except that in these regions, people still do not understand the value and worth of knowledge. [81]

It is a matter of regret that there is no printing house here that is as prominent and prosperous as is the Nawal Kishorī printing house in Hindustan.[74] Along with that, it is another matter of regret that most printing houses belong to other nations. Even the owner of *Maʿārif*, which I have just discussed, is a Christian. Among the printing houses that belong to Muslims, Tarjumān-i Ḥaqīqat, Matbaʿ-i ʿUṡmāniyah, and Shirkat-i Ṣaḥāfiyah are the most distinguished. I toured all of them. Shirkat-i Ṣahāfiyah is remarkable with respect to the fact that it has been founded on shared capital, and all its shareholders are Muslims. The sum of its capital is eighteen thousand pounds, meaning nearly two lakh rupees. All the work is done by an engine. The engine is very large and runs ten or twelve machines. Just as I arrived, *Sharḥ-i Bukhārī* by ʿAinī was being printed.[75] Two thick volumes had already been prepared by that time. The people at the printing house said that there were eight more just like it. In all of Constantinople, this is the Muslims' only shared workhouse. Otherwise, first, why would Muslims touch commerce at all, and even if by some chance they had, why would a few people have come together to do it? In this respect, this printing house, in a way, is an extraordinary occurrence.[76]

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Libraries

Because of thematic arrangement and discursive order, I have reached this heading late; otherwise, with respect to personal interest and the purpose of the journey, this was the topic that I would have written first and in the most detail. The truth is that among the intellectual achievements of the Turks, the most worthy of pride are these libraries. The parts of the Islamic world in which there is talk of education and learning today are [82] Hindustan, Arabia, Egypt, Syria, the countries of the Maghrib, Persia, and Iran. I have seen the intellectual-scientific resource of most of them with my own eyes, and those that I have not seen I know by such strong means that it is as good as seeing them. On this basis, I can say with sufficient certainty that Constantinople is the largest center of Arabic writings in the entire Islamic world.

The Number of Libraries and Books. The number of all the libraries that are in this city is forty-five. The royal library, which is in the Qaṣr-i Humāyūn [Royal Palace] and is extremely old, is in addition to them.[77] These libraries house a total of eighty-five thousand books. Although this number is not such a large number—there are probably more books than that in our Hindustan—Constantinople is superior in terms of the excellence and rarity of the books. Among these libraries, the names of a few are recorded as follows: Jāmiʿ Āyā Sofiyah Library; Jāmiʿ Bāyazīd Library; Yol Jāmiʿ Library; Old Ḥamīdiyah Library; ʿĀshir Āfandī, Shaikh al-Islām, Library; Asʿad Āfandī, Naqīb al-ashrāf, Library; Jāmiʿ Muḥammad Fātiḥ Library; New Ḥamīdiyah Library; ʿAlī Pāshā Shahīd Library; Nūr ʿUṡmāniyah Library; Lālah Bī Library; Ḥakīm Ughlī ʿAlī Pāshā Library; Muḥammad Pāshā Kūprulī Library; Qalīch ʿAlī Pāshā Library; Walī al-Dīn Āfandī Library; Salīmiyah Library; Faiżullāh Āfandī Library; Sulṭān Muḥammad Qażī-zādah Library; Wālidah Sulṭān Mosque Library; ʿĀṭif Āfandī Library; Shāh-zādah Dāmād Ibrāhīm Pāshā Library; Khusrau Pāshā Library; Mihrshān Library; [83] Muḥammad Āfandī Library; Muṣṭafā Āfandī Library; Taufīq Āfandī Library; Sulaimāniyah Library; Muḥammad Āfandī Murād Library; Rāghib Pāshā Library.[78] Detailed catalogues of fourteen of these libraries have been printed and published, and the remaining catalogues, too, will probably be published in time.

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Endowments for Libraries. As their names themselves express, these libraries were founded by former pāshās and amīrs, and all of them are public endowments. Along with each library, property, too, is endowed, from which its ordinary expenses—meaning renovations and repair of the building, carpet and ordinary furniture, and the salary of employees—are paid. With regard to these matters, one must acknowledge that the rank of the Turks in the generous support of knowledge is superior to all Islamic nations. In India, an Islamic government lasted for ages and was prosperous and glorious. Great renowned wazīrs and amīrs came and went, but today not even one intellectual-scientific monument of theirs exists.

In these libraries one also finds proof of the fact that among the Turks, the group of amīrs (which in other nations is in generally a relatively illiterate group) is educated, and educated at the highest level. In most libraries, there exist the personal writings of the endowers, or books written in their hands, which bear witness to their taste and breadth of vision. Additionally, from the kind of excellent and rare books that have been sought out and collected, one gains an estimate of the fact [84] that the intellectual-scientific taste of the collectors was no ordinary taste.

The External State of the Libraries. These libraries are of an ordinary grade with respect to the fineness of the building and other resources and provisions. So much so that in some libraries, there are not even cabinets. They have piled books on a platform around which there is an iron enclosure. In all the libraries, seating is on the floor. Of course, there is just this much formality: benches are arranged in front, on which they set books and read. Although the Ḥamīdiyah Library, which has recently been established and is a monument to the auspicious age of the Great Sulṭān, is of greater magnificence and glory—the building is beautiful and large; there are silken pillows on all the desks, chairs, and couches; in sum, it is an exception to other libraries in all matters—still, it cannot compete with the Allahabad Public Library.[79]

The Administration of Endowments. Because the administration of all endowments is connected with the state, the libraries, too, are under the

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care of the government, and this is the reason that, despite the length of time, the books are so carefully protected that not even a single page has been lost. The employees, despite their meager salaries, are extremely honest and of upright character. The endowment of the ʿĀshir Āfandī Library is so small that the librarian cannot receive more than ordinary food and two rupees per month. But the person who has been appointed librarian is so honest and so observant of his duties that it is not possible to be more so. Grapevines have grown on the walls of the library. One day I said to him, "If you just sold all the grapes, you could have a reasonable income." He said, "According to the condition of the endower, [85] these grapes are only for the people who came to the library for the purpose of reading books, so I cannot gain any kind of benefit from them." Because of his meager salary, the poor fellow has not even married, nor does he have a place to live. He sleeps right there in the library at night.

Several Characteristics of the Libraries. The characteristics and summary details of the libraries will be known by the following facts:

(1) The Soundness and Excellence of Manuscript Copies. The greatest distinction is that the books that are found here are generally in old script, authentic, and corrected by past masters. The authenticity of classical and rare books of which there are only a few copies in the world takes precedence over all else. Otherwise, one cannot rely on them. There is no lack of old books in the libraries of Egypt, too, but most have been written in the present period, and for this reason they are not very authentic or reliable. Having seen the books at Constantinople, one wonders from where have such wondrous copies of these books been gathered? I had been searching for ʿAbd al-Qāhir al-Jurjānī's *Asrār al-balāghah* for some time.[80] I found only one copy in Hindustan, but it was extremely erroneous and unreliable. I saw numerous copies of it in Constantinople, and all of them were extremely sound and in old script. Similarly, copies of *al-Bayān wal-tabyīn* by al-Jāḥiẓ, *Tażkirah* by Ibn-i Ḥamadūn, *Muʿjim al-Udabāʾ* by Yaʿqūt Ḥamawī, *Kitāb al-ashrāf* by al-Balāżurī, and *Tārīkh-i kabīr* by Imām Bukhārī all exist and are extremely authentic and reliable.

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(2) The Excellence of the Script and the Paper's Being *Zar-afshān*. In some libraries, for example in the Old Ḥamidiyah, there is the distinction that the paper of most books is *zarīn* or zar-afshān,[81] and there are golden flower and vine designs in the margins. Along with these formalities, the script is of an extremely high order. Because books of the classical age could rarely be found with such formalities, the founder of the library has had most of them prepared with care. I had numerous books, which even included a complete copy of *Shifā* by Bū ʿAlī Sīnā, taken out, and I looked at them and spontaneously praised the refinement of the owner of the library.

(3) The Translation of Greek Books. I thought that the translations that were made of Greek and Egyptian books in the period of Abbasid rule had disappeared from the world. But when I came here, the falsehood of this idea was proven. Although relative to the large amount of translations that were made, the existing material may as well be nonexistent, still, what little does exist is a blessing.[82]

It seems that the Turks paid special attention to classical writings. Thus, in this matter, they took advantage of European efforts, too. Ibn-i Rushd had written an extremely beneficial and comprehensive summary of Aristotle's writings. This original summary has been lost. But a translation of it was made in Latin, which is still found in the libraries of Europe. Asʿad Āfandī, a Turkish intellectual, translated the Latin summary into Arabic and made some additions throughout. I saw this translation in the library of Rāghib Pāshā. It is a very large collection and is an excellent specimen of the intellectual-scientific endeavors of the Turks.

(4) Rare Works of History and Literature. In the fields of history and literature, I saw several writings in which the innovation that I had been seeking for some time was found and, apart from the present writings of Europe, no trace of this kind of writing style had been found anywhere. For example, many books have been written on the circumstances of qāẓīs, [87] but no one thought to copy their rulings and decrees along with their life circumstances so that one could compare this with today's method of deciding cases. A book of this kind exists in the Library of the Yanī Congregational Mosque. The author of the book is Abū Bakr

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Muḥammad bin Khalaf Wakīʿ,[83] an author from an extremely ancient period, who recounts all events with an unbroken chain of authority. In the book, he has observed the rule to copy, along with information about each person, a great many rulings and judgments, and has recounted the specifics of the cases.

I had never seen a book of this kind in the field of literature; rather, I did not even think that a Muslim would ever have written a book in which there was a history of poetic themes; that is, such-and-such a poet first wrote such and such a theme, then, gradually, such and such a poet made this and that addition, or changed its forms thus. In the Library of ʿĀshir Āfandī, I saw a very thick book specifically on this topic. The author has claimed that the pre-Islamic Arabs invented themes of every kind, then later poets developed them and came up with various new embellishments. The entire book is in proof of this claim. The author copies one poem by a pre-Islamic Arab for each theme and tells us that among the Islamic poets, such and such a poet changed this same theme a bit and wrote it thus. Then the poets of the Umayyad and Abbasid governments produced even more forms from it. Having read this book, one is astonished by the author's breadth of vision and discernment of subtle detail, and, along with that, one regrets that later authors could not follow in the footsteps of [88] rare compositions of this kind so that numerous books on this subject might exist today.[84]

(5) The Writings of Philosophers and the Leaders of Their Fields. The abundance in which the books of renowned philosophers and leaders of their fields are found here cannot be found anywhere else. The rare writings of Imām Ghazālī, Bū ʿAlī Sīnā, Fakhr-i Rāzī, and Fārābī, whose names are known only by means of Ibn-i Khallikān, and so on, are found here in abundance. The correspondence and letters related to gnosis and truth that occurred between Abū ʿAlī Sīnā and Ḥażrat Sulṭān Abū Saʿīd Abū al-Khair from time to time are available in the form of short treatises.[85]

Regarding Ibn-i Sīnā, it has long been a matter of debate whether or not he added anything to Greek philosophy. He has written in *Kitāb al-shifā*, "Whatever I write is the philosophy of Aristotle. I have written my own philosophy in *Ḥikmat-i mashriqiyah*." Europeans are desperately

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seeking this book, meaning *Ḥikmat-i mashriqiyah*. And because they cannot find this book, Professor Munk has written in his book, *Rabṭ falsafat al-Yahūd wal-Islam*, that we cannot find *Ḥikmat-i mashriqiyah*, and from the books we can find, it is proven that Ibn-i Sina did not add anything.[86] An extremely excellent copy of this rare book is found in the Library of the Āyā Ṣofīyah [Hagia Sophia] Congregational Mosque. Would Muslims ever have taken the trouble to read it and to compare it with Greek philosophy? But if Europeans had found this book, there is no doubt that a conclusive decision in the debate as to whether or not Muslims added anything to Greek philosophy would have been made. Because time was short, I looked only superficially at this book. It did not appear that there was any innovation in it. [89] If there had been an opportunity to look at it with eyes of minute examination, then some opinion could have been formed.

The Names of Some Books of History and Literature. Among the rare books of history and literature that I saw here, the names of some of them are as follows: *Tārīkh* by Khaṭīb Baghdādī, whole and complete; *Tārīkh-i Islām* by ʿAllāmah Żahabī, eight volumes; *Tārīkh al-ḥukamā* by Jamāl al-Dīn Qifṭī;[87] *Tārīkh-i kabīr* by Imām Bukhārī, three volumes; *Tajārib al-umam* by Ibn-i Miskawaih;[88] *Muntaẓam* by Ibn al-Jauzī; *Mira'ṭ al-zamān* by Sibṭ ibn al-Jauzī; *Masālik al-abṣār* by Ibn-i Fażlullāh, twenty volumes; *ʿIqd al-jumān* by Badr al-Dīn al-ʿAinī, eighteen volumes; *Mukhtaṣar-i Tārīkh-i Dimashq-i Ibn-i ʿAsākir* by Jamāl al-Dīn bin Mukarrim al-Anṣārī, four volumes; *Riḥlah* by Ibn-i Khaldūn; *Nihāyat al-arab* by al-Nuwairī; *Tabaqāt al-udabā* by Yāqūt al-Ḥamawī;[89] *Tabaqāt al-kubrā* by Ibn-i Saʿd;[90] *Tabaqāt al-umam* by Ibn-i Ṣāʿid al-Andalūsī; *Kitāb al-ashrāf* by al-Balāżurī, whole and complete; *Sīrat al-ʿUmarain* by Ibn-i Jauzī;[91] *Kitāb al-bayān wal-tab'īn* by Jāḥiẓ;[92] *Ṣināʿatain* by al-ʿAskarī; *Dalā'il al-iʿjāz* by ʿAbd al-Qāhir al-Jurjānī;[93] the *Tażkirah* by Ibn-i Ḥamdūn; *Sharḥ-i Tabrīzī bar Dīwān-i Abū Tammām;*[94] the *Dīwān* of Abū Nuwās, complete; *Sirqāt al-Mutanabbī* by Ibn al-ʿUmaid;[95] *Majmūʿah-i risā'il* by Abū Isḥāq Ṣābī.[96]

The People[97] of This Place Do Not Take Advantage of the Libraries. In mentioning libraries, I am forced say with extreme regret that these rare books are entirely useless here. First, these libraries open for only a few

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hours in the day. Along with that, there is a continuous holiday for a few months in the year. Along with these things, there is such a lack of superior taste that rare and classical books just lie there, unused. No one even picks them up to look at them. In the libraries, whenever I saw people engaged in studying books, I always sought to discover what kind of books they were reading. But I never saw any books other than *Mukhtaṣar-i maʿānī*, *Īsāghūjī*, *Sharḥ-i waqāyah*, *Jalālain*, and so on.[98] [90] Of course, renowned scholars from foreign countries appear from time to time, and they are always in search of rare and excellent books.

The reality is that in the entire Islamic world, the method of education has become so debased that, apart from a few textbooks, no one has any inclination toward modern knowledge of any kind, the result of which is that the material of novelty and innovation is being stripped away from the nation, and there is no hope in the future for whatever little remains.

Note: The detailed account that I gave in description of the libraries, I made for a specific purpose, and I want to call the nation's attention to it. In Europe, numerous societies have been established whose aim is to collect classical, excellent books and print and publish them. It is by virtue of these societies that classical and rare Arabic books have become available to us which we had never thought obtainable. These are the societies that compiled a complete copy of *Tārīkh-i kabīr* by Abū Jaʿfar Jarīr Ṭabarī and have printed and published a great number of volumes of it,[99] whereas the scholars of Egypt and Turkey had lost all hope of finding this rare historical treasure, and Shāh ʿAbd al-ʿAzīz sāḥib had assured us that it had been lost from the world.[100] Without a doubt, Europe has done us a great favor, and we should acknowledge it openly. I beseech the elders of the nation to form a grand society of this kind. Sufficient capital should be collected by means of public donations. Capable and qualified authors should be appointed as members for the selection of books. Books should be copied and ordered from Constantinople and Egypt, and they should be printed and published. [91] Such an undertaking may appear overwhelming and, with regard to the present state of the nation, impossible. But in reality it is not. If among four crore Muslims, even one hundred Muslims are prepared to give a small amount in subscription, then it is no difficulty for this task to be accomplished.

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We hope that the society that has been established in Hyderabad by the name of Dā'irat al-Maʿārif al-Dakaniyah, of which one esteemed member is Nawāb Iqbāl Yār Jang Bahādur, will attend to our request.[101] We recognize with gratitude its generous support of science and knowledge, but we require more generosity than this, and our hope is that the Dā'irat al-Maʿārif will attend to this purpose with even more attention and care.

Zawāyā or Hostels

Hostels, which they call *takyah* or *takāyā* here, are in abundance.[102] The names of 305 hostels, along with details of their locations and other information, are recorded in the latest report that has been compiled. But the word *khānqāh* [retreat for dervishes] does not carry the same meaning that is used in our region. In these regions, this is a wondrously beneficent practice that is, in truth, amazing. In all major cities, there are separate hostels for every region and every group. When a traveler from that region and group turns up there, he can enter the hostel without hindrance of any kind and can stay there as long as he desires. Food and one serving of tea each day are free. This generosity is so widespread that despite the remoteness of the distance and the lack of connection, in Constantinople, Damascus, Jerusalem, Aleppo, Mosul, Diyar Bakır, all these places, there are separate hostels for Hindustanis, [92] and an appropriate quantity of meat and grain is designated for them.

Amīrs and elites have established these hostels and have endowed enough property that regular expenses are always paid. There is a shaikh in every hostel who receives a reasonable salary and board, and the entire administration of the hostel depends on him. I visited numerous hostels. The buildings of some of them were of pleasant ambiance and elegant. The type and quantity of food is also sufficient. The yearly expenses of the hostels in Constantinople alone cannot be estimated at less than four or five lakhs. In truth, this is very great proof of the generosity of the Turks and there is no doubt that, with regard to the time when this practice was established, it was neither unsuitable nor inelegant.

You have probably read in Arabic histories that there always remained a steady stream of travelers and students throughout the Islamic regions.

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This was on account of these hostels and *zawāyā*. Ibn-i Baṭūṭah was aided by this practice on his worldwide journey. Thus, he wrote the names of these hostels in his travelogue. But it is a fact of nature that when bad days befall a nation, beneficial practices become harmful. Muslims lost the taste for travel, geographical research, and the acquisition of knowledge. For this reason, this custom has become nothing more than a means of laziness, freeloading, and pauperism, and it is doing extreme harm to national life. I went into and saw many hostels myself. Some travelers have been there for several years. They have neither any occupation nor any work. Here, one can see with one's own eyes the condition of the officers of Lucknow that we always used to hear about.[103] [93] The shaikhs to whom the administration of the hostels is entrusted, and the cash and commodities in their care, are generally double-dealing and dishonest. They live in extreme ease and luxury themselves and do not give the travelers half, a third, or even a quarter of the amount that is designated for them. The shaikh of the Indian hostel is a Kashmiri gentleman. He has taken several wives. He has built a house separate from the hostel for himself. He often stays there. The two and a half seers of meat that are allotted for the hostel each day come into the possession of the gentleman, and even ordinary food does not fall to the lot of the travelers. The building of the hostel is crumbling. There is always a pile of trash and filth sitting in the courtyard. In brief, it is a complete picture of savagery and desolation. Although the other hostels that I saw were better than the Hindi hostel in every respect, no trace of honesty and integrity is found. In this way, an amount of several lakhs annually is squandered in an extremely bad way.

Congregational Masjids and Famous Places

With respect to the abundance of congregational masjids and their fineness of construction, magnificence, and glory, Constantinople has no equal in the world. From the time of Muḥammad Fātiḥ, who was the first to sit on the throne in this capital city, up to today, a congregational masjid of all the rulers who have passed (with a few exceptions) is found, and each is of great grandeur and glory. Among them the most distinguished are the Jāmiʿ Fātiḥ, the Jāmiʿ Sulaimān, the Jāmiʿ Bāyazid, the Jāmiʿ

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Wālidah-i Sulṭān, the Jāmiʿ Sulṭān Aḥmad, and the Jāmiʿ Āyā Sofiyah, and among these the Jāmiʿ Āyā Sofiyah is the most glorious and magnificent. [94] The construction of these masjids is completely different from the masjids in our place. There is neither a hall nor arches nor a courtyard. There is only a single dome, but so large that several thousand people can fit under it. Although with respect to Hindustani taste, one cannot call these masjids beautiful and elegant, the boundless largeness of the dome and the loftiness of the building immediately fill a person with wonder, rather, render him awed and wonderstruck. There are metal chandeliers of several hundred candles in each masjid. It seems as if the tradition of the chandelier exists from a very ancient time. In the Arabic histories of Spain, this kind of chandelier is probably meant by the word *ṡurayyā*.[104] Of course, the difference is that they were made of glass and crystal there, and they are made of metal here. Generally, in all masjids there is a special compulsory element from which it seems that the sulṭāns were extremely excessive in Sunnism and made a display of it at every turn. Generally, in every masjid there are four large shields in all four corners, and, on them, written in gold in extremely fine calligraphy and large, bold letters, are *Abū Bakr*, *ʿUmar*, *ʿUṡmān*, and *ʿAlī*,[105] in entirely the same way that they hang calligraphed fragments written by masters on walls for decoration and adornment.

The Decoration of the Masjids. All masjids are elaborate and decorated. Ordinarily, reed mats, and on Friday and both Eids, excellent and highly valuable carpets are laid out on the floor. On one side of the masjid, some land is reserved on which there is a place for ablutions with flowing water. I was extremely pleased by the fact that pools are absolutely not in use here.

The Āyā Ṣofiyah [Hagia Sofia] Mosque. The Āyā Ṣofiyah Mosque is the most glorious, and all masjids are built on its example. Originally, it was a very large church, which Constantine constructed in 325. Its construction took seven years, and one hundred architects and ten thousand laborers worked on it. [95] Muḥammad Fātiḥ, having altered it somewhat, turned it into a masjid. Ibn-i Baṭūṭah had seen it as a church. He writes, "This is the largest church of the Romans, and because no outsider can go inside it,

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I cannot describe the quality of its interior. From the outside, its features are that there is a compound of one mile, and the entire ground is covered in marble flooring. In the middle is a canal on both shores of which there is a wall of marble one arm's length high. On the wall is excellent mosaic work, and extremely excellent flowers and vine patterns have been made. The gate of the church is covered in gold leaf and silver leaf. It became clear from peoples' accounts that several thousand priests and monks live in the church, day and night."

The features that Ibn-i Baṭūṭah described, alas, no longer exist. The enclosure, in which there was a canal, is completely outside the masjid, and has been turned into a coffeehouse.

Truly, this building is wondrous and astonishing. The diameter of the middle dome is 115 feet, and the elevation of the ceiling is 180 feet. There are 170 columns, and all the stones are marble and porphyry stone. The diameter of these columns is no less than three or four arm's lengths each. On the gate, which is from the time of Constantine and is made of copper, some images from the classical age are made, and they are still standing. Even remnants of the images of Jesus, peace be upon him, and Mary that were on the ceiling still exist.

Places Worth Seeing. Places worth seeing are many. For example, ancient temples of the Greeks; the armory; the treasury, meaning where there are full-sized images of all the Ottoman sulṭāns along with original dress, weapons, and jewelry; the factory for casting canons; [96] *mūzah khānah*,[106] meaning the ancient museum where there are rocks and inscriptions of an extremely ancient period. In it, there is even the coffin of Alexander the Greek, and so on, and so on. But I could not visit most places. Thus, I shall content myself with those places that I toured myself.

Shipyard [*Tars-khānah*]. That is, the factory for building ships. It is a very large, magnificent factory, and because it is connected with the Military Department, no one can go there without the written permission of the Naval Office. Fortunately, one esteemed officer in the Naval Office was an acquaintance of our friend Shaikh ʿAlī Ẓabyān. He kindly sent an officer along with us, who took us on a thorough tour of the entire factory.

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This ṣāḥib understood and spoke Arabic well, and for this reason we could inquire about everything in detail. This factory is divided into different parts whose headquarters are a very large, rectangular, two-story building, where there are large engines, and by means of them hundreds of machines run. Our guide first took us on a tour of the upper level. First he took us into a large room. There, several esteemed officers seated around a long table were preparing the plan of a ship. When the diagram is prepared, it is sent into another office, where a small model of the ship is prepared in accordance with the diagram. This model is made of wood, and despite being small, it is a complete image of the ship. This model is first presented to the sulṭān for consideration, and, after approval, a ship is prepared in accordance with its example. How could I have understood the subtleties and finer points of these replica ships? But in appearance, it seemed to be work of extreme precision and mastery. [97]

Torpedo Ships. Having seen these things, we went down below. Here, hundreds of machines were running, and different jobs were being done. On one side, parts were being cast. On another side, a hammer weighing hundreds of maunds repeatedly fell onto many thick iron bars and turned them into sheets. Ahead of this building there is a very large, long enclosure. There, was a nearly complete ship there. All that remained was to clad the sheet. Here, I saw many torpedo boats that had been prepared in this very factory and had been launched into the ocean. There is nothing in the upper level of these ships. The entire ship looks like a large wooden board. The instruments of war and necessary things of every kind, that is, the kitchen, sleeping chamber, dining room, in short, whatever there is, is inside. Our guide even took us on a tour of one boat. But because there is very little room inside, we began to suffocate in just a short while and soon came outside. The extremely praiseworthy thing is that only Turks run such a magnificent factory. All the officers, artisans, and employees are Turks. Only a single European is an employee of ordinary rank, and even he has been retained with regard to seniority.[107] The engines, too, are prepared here, and the Turks state that they are no less than the engines built in Europe in any respect. One officer told me, "We have no dependency on Europe in any tasks of this kind."

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The Slain of the Yang Charīs. In the history of the Turks, the word *Yang Charī* [Janissary] is an extremely important word. [98] Sulṭān Ārkhān [Orhan], who was the second among the Sulṭāns of Turkey to sit on the throne, gave the order in 763 Hijrī [1361–62] that a particular number of the prisoners of war who arrived as captives in large numbers each year should be selected, and an army prepared from them. Ḥajī Baktāsh, who was the spiritual mentor of the sulṭān, named the army the Yang Charī, the meaning of which in the Turkish language is "new army." Considerable increases were made in the size of this army because of the large number of conquests. So much so that after two or three generations, the army became the hand and arm of the government. It is a strange thing that although these captives of war were generally Christian by descent, and even after entering the army stood firm in their old religion, they still had such genuine love for the Turkish government that the Turks themselves could not have had more. It was by virtue of these daring, self-sacrificing men that the Turks were able to make Europe their hunting ground for some time. In 1826, when Sulṭān Maḥmūd sought to organize the army on European principles, these people rebelled. The sulṭān had already prepared a modern army. The people of the city, too, stood by the royal modern army. In short, there was a harsh battle in Constantinople itself. The Yang Charī army was completely destroyed. In addition, the royal army, too, suffered a severe loss, and the Grand Wazīr and Shaikh al-Islām were killed.[108]

This space is an edifying monument to this battle. There are full-length statues of the Grand Wazīr, Shaikh al-Islām, and all the major, renowned officers of the Yangcharī army. The formidable form of the soldiers and generals, the garments and military weaponry of classical times, the scene of silence and tranquility—by all these things gathered together, such an awesome scene has been produced that one is afraid to go there even in the daytime. [99] I saw two warriors sunk from head to toe in iron, helmet on head, visor on face, iron gloves on hands, coat of mail and *chār-ā'īnah* armor on body, iron boots up to the knees. In sum, no part of the body was visible except for the eyes. By inquiry I learned that they are Kurdish youths who were appointed especially to the service of his majesty. In my estimation, there was no less than a burden of one maund of iron on their

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body. It is a wonder how they fought with such weight. The garments of officers are of a strange and wondrous kind. The turbans of some are a full forearm's length high each. There is an official guard at all times, and no person can go there without obtaining a ticket.

Museum. *Mūzah-khānah*. Meaning museum. The museums are two. One official, where there are extremely ancient stones and inscriptions, and monumental things of this kind. There is even a stone coffin of Alexander the Greek. Alas, I did not have a chance to visit it.

Some Christian businessman established the other. The building and all the other objects are ordinary. All that is worth seeing are the statues of people from different parts of the world. These statues have been made so well that they seem completely real. I saw a woman whose lips were extremely fat, and a pointed wooden peg had been pierced all the way through her bottom lip. I learned that it is an ornament in that place. At first I was extremely astonished. Then I thought that if in our country they pierce noses and ears and have people wear nose rings and earrings, then what fault did lips commit that they should be deprived of such adornment? [100]

A Painful Spectacle. Here, I saw a strange, painful spectacle, the effect of which remained on my heart for a while. In a separate room, there are several women who are afflicted with various kinds of torture. One is being pressed in a torture rack. On the back of another, they have set a burning slip of metal so that from the neck to the waist, four fingers' length of skin has peeled off. The others are similarly being tortured in a strange way. From their appearance and style of dress, these women seem wealthy and noble. Most are young, attractive, and of delicate figure. I was severely astonished to think which tyrannical hands had been so audacious as to raise a hand against these goddesses of beauty!! By inquiry, I learned that when the Islamic government was destroyed in Spain, and the sultanate of the Christians was established, Muslims were generally compelled to change their religion, and because the trace of Islam could not easily be erased from their hearts, they were tortured in various ways and manners, and, on account of their helplessness and weakness, even more tyranny

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was enacted upon women. These tyrannized women are memorials of this admonitory and morally instructive event. At that time I thought, "Aha! It is these very Christians who deride us that Islam was spread by the sword!!!"

I could not figure out to what end the founder of the museum, who is a Christian, has kept these images here. Does he desire to show this proud achievement of the Christians? And since the government of the Turks does not object and intervene, does it desire to offer proof of its impartiality? I extremely dislike and disapprove of the idea that the unpleasant events that have taken place at some time among different nations of the world should be brought once more into public view. [101]

Sights

In Constantinople and its outlying area and vicinity, wondrous, pleasant natural sights are in abundance, and it is a blessing that the people of the city appreciate the value of this boon. A particular day is fixed for each sight. On that day, there is a wondrous, pleasant gathering there. Alas, the people of our region are not aware of a taste for natural scenery. Otherwise, people would have travelled to Constantinople specifically to see these sights and to enjoy them, and this would not have been considered strange. I visited two or three of them, and I shall write brief accounts of them.

Khūnkar Ṣūī. Khūnkar Ṣūī [Hünkar Suyu] is the most pleasant and enchanting of all the sights in Constantinople. On this basis, it has been associated with the name of the Great Sulṭān. Khūnkar is an alteration of the Persian word *khūngar*. In Turkish, they call the Emperor *khūn kā mālik* [the lord of blood] or *khūn-rez* [blood-spiller] and the meanings of *sū'ī* are water and spring.[109] On this basis, the literal translation of *Khūngar Ṣūī* is "royal spring." This place is located at a distance of twenty to twenty-five miles from the city. A range of mountains stretches far into the distance, and it is extremely lush and verdant. In it, one area, which is located on the upper surface of the mountain, appears extremely attractive. The place where the spectators gather in particular is extremely pleasant. There are lines of shady trees on both sides. As far as the eye can see,

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one sees nothing but verdure. There is a waterfall on one side whose water gathers in a pool. All around, beneath the trees, there are parties of two to four people each. A round of tea and coffee is served. Music is played at the pool, [102] and there is French and Turkish singing. Jesters put on shows.

Five or six steps above is the actual summit of the mountain, and it is extremely open, level, and shady. This place is reserved for women to sit, and many Turkish ladies are always gathered. Covering a distance of twenty or thirty miles, climbing the mountain, and riding a horse or mule is a matter of no little discomfort for delicate-figured women, but this place is so alluring that all discomforts can be endured for it.

Maqrī Kūī [Makrıköy].[110] This is a coffeehouse that is exactly on the edge of the sea and is a place of extremely pleasant ambiance. Waves repeatedly come and crash against the steep banks, and one feels a wondrous sense of joy. One special thing about this place is that six or seven Jewish women sit on a high platform and sing Arabic songs. Because I had never heard Arabic music before, it left a special impression on me. Everyone sang together as they played a kind of frame drum.

Muḥarram

The Muḥarram of this place is also something worth mentioning.[111] The number of people of ʿAjam, who reside here by reason of different connections, is no less than fifty or sixty thousand.[112] A great many are employees in government offices. Many are traders, professionals, and laborers. Although these people are spread throughout all parts of the city, where they live in abundance is a neighborhood by the name of Wālidah Khānah [Valide Hanı].[113] At Muharram time, assemblies of great pomp and parade, and the massive gathering of lamentation and weeping, mostly take place right here. [103] In the assemblies here, there is no tradition of *soz* and *taḥt al-lafẓ*; only narration takes place.[114] And in truth this alone is the purpose of the assembly of mourning. The general practice of this place is that, first, a person, standing near the minbar, recites poems related to the virtues and accomplishments of Janāb-i Amīr (ʿa) and Imām Ḥusain, peace be upon him.[115] Then a learned scholar sits on the minbar and describes

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the circumstances of Karbala extremely finely and clearly in the form of a sermon. I was very happy at the fact that Turks generally participate in these assemblies with decorum and sincerity. So much so that the sermon that takes place, except for one or two occasions, in all other assemblies, takes place in Turkish in consideration of the Turks.[116]

The Strange and Wondrous Methods of Mourning. There are a few methods of mourning, and some are extremely wondrous and impressive. The mourning of the lowest order is that they beat the chest with extreme force, so much so that the flesh there swells up. The second method is to mourn with chains. There is a circle of thirty to forty people, and they beat chains on their chest or back with such force that the sound carries some distance. The third method is to mourn with swords, and this is exclusive to the *shab-i shahādat*.[117] The mourners, standing in ranks holding bare swords in their hands, repeat "Yā Ḥusain!" in a complete state of wondrous passion and rapture as they go on striking themselves with swords on their heads, foreheads, and shoulders. Sprays of blood fly up from the wounds and fall upon and cover the entire body, and it is as if the circle of mourning turns into a field of battle. There is an extremely dense crowd of people to see this edifying and admonishing spectacle, and it is difficult to reach there.[118] [104]

Salāmlaq or Sulṭān's Guard and Eid al-Żuḥā

There is nothing more impressive or interesting in Constantinople than the Salāmlaq. *Salāmlaq* is a Turkish word whose literal translation is "to make salaam." Because on this occasion the army and the army commanders come to make salaam to the sulṭān, they designate this ceremony Salāmlaq. The sulṭān generally never leaves the royal palace. He only graces the congregational masjid to read Friday namāz, and that is where, after prayers, this ceremony is performed. The reality is that it is difficult, severely difficult, to draw a picture of the grandeur and magnificence that appears at that time by means of language or pen. Despite the fact that this occasion takes place four times in a month and forty-eight times in a year, and for this reason it can be considered an ordinary thing, there is

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always such a crowd of spectators that people climb into trees and onto men's shoulders to watch the spectacle. European dignitaries and travelers who come to tour Constantinople never let this occasion slip from their hand. There is a gallery above the thoroughfare of the royal guard. Having bought tickets, esteemed people are given permission to sit there. Thus, a sizable assembly of these esteemed spectators is found every Friday. During my stay, many chief members of the sultanate of Hungary had come to tour Constantinople and had joined this assembly. [105]

I had already heard of these states of affairs in Hindustan. For this reason, immediately upon arriving at Constantinople, I made plans to see it. I took along a Syrian Arab, whom I had recently met, and reached the Ḥamīdiyah Congregational Mosque [Hamidiye Camii]. Having reached there, I looked to find that ranks of soldiers had formed stretching far off into the distance, and it was difficult for the eye to reach the royal guard. I had no choice but to turn back. Ḥusain Ḥasīb Āfandī was once the Turkish Consul at Bombay and now is police commissioner in Constantinople. He knew me by means of the fact that in the Russian War, I had sent three thousand rupees through him to Constantinople as the secretary of a society.[119] On the basis of this means of introduction, I appeared in his service. He treated me with extreme kindness and said, "Come on Friday to the Ḥamīdiyah Congregational Mosque. I shall hold a ticket for you." But unfortunately (and, if you ask the truth, then, fortunately), when I arrived there, he was nowhere to be found. I waited for him at the door of the masjid for a while. At nearly one o'clock, when the roar of the sulṭān's approach began, the armies, spreading far into the distance, formed ranks in the shape of a crescent, and all the roads stopped. Disappointed, I entered the masjid and regretted that this Friday, too, had been a miss. A little while had passed when there came a sound like that of thunder, and the entire area erupted with echoing roars. I learned that the sulṭān's cavalcade had drawn near, and the cry was "*Pādshāhim choq yashā*,"* which is the national cry of the Turks. These cries were raised three times in

* The literal translation of this is, "May our emperor live long."

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succession. The sulṭān's guard arrived at the masjid, and the roar of the cries had not yet quieted when the muezzin, who was waiting for the beautiful appearance of the sulṭān, raised the cry of *Allāhu akbar*. Both sounds mixed together left a wondrous impression on the heart. The sulṭān was riding in an open carriage. Because the courtyard of the masjid is not a part of the masjid, meaning they do not perform namāz there and they can go there wearing shoes, the carriage entered the courtyard and came to a stop near the door. [106] The masjid is two stories, and on the upper story is a gallery, which is the place reserved exclusively for the sulṭān's namāz. Having stepped down from the carriage, the sulṭān went to the upper story and, as he went inside, satin curtains were released over the windows to the gallery so that no one could see him.

When people were calmly seated, the preacher began the sermon. Regrettably, the preacher was a Turk. He was not an Arab. Thus, there was not that quality and effect in his tone and accent which is exclusive to the Arab. Still, when the second sermon began, and when he, gesturing toward the sulṭān, recited the following words in a passionate voice, "*Allāhuma unṣur hāżā al-sulṭān al-suḷtān ibn al-sulṭān al-khāqān ibn al-khāqān al-sulṭān ʿAbd al-Ḥamīd Khān*,"[120] it produced a strange, wondrous feeling. My state was such that tears continuously flowed from my eyes, and for a while prayerful words poured from my lips. At exactly that moment, fifteen or twenty people stood up at once in whose hands were petitions and appeals. These people raised their hands in the sulṭān's direction and offered prayers for him as they presented their petitions. The petition officer collected and submitted their papers. I saw several as they, gesturing toward the sulṭān, bowed to the ground and, touching the ground with their hand, kissed the hand. Although all these matters went against the custom and tranquility of the sermon, they did not lack their own an appealing quality. I learned by inquiry that people for whom it is otherwise impossible to access the Great Sulṭān express their concerns in this way, [107] and because the temperament of the sulṭān is naturally beneficent and generous, the custom is not stopped.

After namāz, Ḥusain Ḥasīb Āfandī happened to run into me and complained, "I was looking all over for you. Where did you disappear to? You

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will not get a ticket for the upper gallery now, but I will find an even better opportunity for you." Having performed namāz, when all the people went outside, the sulṭān came down from the gallery and stopped on a stairway wherefrom the Salāmlaq could be seen well, and no one could see the sulṭān. The army officers and the pāshās, having formed a line, stood on the right side of the courtyard. Ḥusain Ḥasīb brought me to stand in the line and told the people, "He is our guest." An esteemed officer (because of fine moral character) stepped back and cleared a space for me.

The Arrival of the Troops. After a little while, the troops began to arrive. From the royal palace to the masjid, there is a wide and sloping road. The troops stood in ranks in the form of a crescent stretching far into the distance. Passing by the front of the royal palace, they entered the main gate of the masjid and left by the other gate. The orderliness of the ranks, the different divisions of cavalry, foot soldiers, naval, ground troops, artillery, riflemen, Turks, Kurds, and Arabs, the elegant and regimented pace, splendid glittering weapons, uniforms of different and attractive styles, the coming of armies in succession and passing in front of their emperor with loyal passion; it was a strange and wondrous scene that can in no way be described. [108] There were turbans on the heads of the Arab regiment, which is the imperial guard, and the green ends of their turbans, flying in the breeze, exhibited a wondrous pleasure. For three continuous hours this military sea continued to billow, and about ten thousand troops passed by. In the end, both of the sulṭān's princes came, and came with wondrous glory. They were in military dress, and swords were bound at their waists. Although they were around ten or twelve years old, the manner in which they rode on horseback and the boldness and glory that was expressed by their faces cannot be put into words. When the princes, too, had gone, the sulṭān came down the stairs, and the ranks of army officers and pāshās, which included me, too, immediately bowed for salaam. I was rapt with wonder from the beginning, and my eyes were fixed in a gaze. It had always been my intention that if I had occasion to have an audience with the sulṭān, I would pay my respects with extreme supplication, but I was in such a state of rapture that the entire rank remained bowed for a while and I, eyes fixed in a gaze, stood there just as before. Of course,

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prayerful words flowed from my tongue and not intentionally, either; rather, I had lost all control.

Having taken five or six steps on foot, the sulṭān mounted his carriage. The officers made salaam once again, and the strange and wondrous scene suddenly became hidden from the eyes: *dīdah-i man bāz o ba-khwābam hanūz*.[121] At the moment when the sulṭān, having come down from the staircase, moved toward the carriage, there was a distance of only three or four arm's lengths from our rank to him, and for this reason I could see him very well. The appearance of the sulṭān is as follows: of medium stature, rather, a bit taller; lean body; oblong face; dignity and intentness drip from his appearance—rather, it seems that he is thinking about something. [109] Completely simple clothing, that is, a coat of black broadcloth and an ordinary Turkish cap.

The Practice of Salāmlaq. The practice of Salāmlaq has existed for some time among the Turks and has become a part of the ceremonies of the sultanate. Royal majesty and magnificence alone are not intended by it. Rather, a great benefit is that a large part of the army is checked each week, and in this way all the troops that reside in the capital and its environs pass through the inspection of the sulṭān several times each year. The Sulṭān of the Age can make a sufficient estimate of the state of the army, and thoughts of passion and loyalty to the emperor become refreshed in the hearts of the army.

When I returned to my residence having seen this spectacle, my heart was filled with passion and effect. By the incitement of poetic emotions, a few lines spontaneously came and went across my tongue. Taking up pen and paper, I sat down and penned a few couplets. Then the idea occurred to me that there would be even more material on the day of Eid. When I had seen that, too, I should write. Thus, all the couplets of the introduction that had been composed at that time, I wrote down and set aside. By these couplets at the end of the introduction:

> And this you ask—that from that place of beautiful sites,
> What have your eyes obtained?

to this couplet:

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Because the gathering is full of beautiful visions,
The garment hem of my eye is filled with spectacle.[122]

this impressive and passionate scene is meant. [110]

Eid Procession. There was no Salāmlaq on the day of Eid, and for this reason the number of troops was low, but the glory and grandeur, majesty and magnificence, passion and effect, were a bit greater than even the Salāmlaq. The troops began to arrive at around eight o'clock and the unbroken series continued for an hour to an hour and a half. After that, a great number of empty carriages came. People wondered, "What is meant by them?" Then all at once, ranks of foot soldiers appeared in the distance. It became known that all the wazīrs, pāshās, army officers, and major regional officers were coming on foot in the sulṭān's procession. These ranks continued for half a mile on both sides of the street, and a strange and wondrous glory and grandeur was expressed by their fashion and dress. Golden flowers [epaulets] on their shoulders; writing in gold and silver thread on their garment hems and sleeves; chests covered in bejeweled and golden medals; the reflection of the sun on all this; the entire field sparkled. When this rank had gone, then the world-adorning beauty of the sulṭān appeared. The lauded gentleman was mounted on horseback. His dress was entirely simple. A few great, renowned military officers were in stirrups to accompany him. The horse slowly and gently raised its step, and at each step the cry "*Bādshāhim choq yashā*" was raised such that the entire area echoed with thunderous roars.

When I returned after seeing this scene, I sat down with ink and pen so that I could show others what I had seen myself. But alas, extreme alas, the pen fell entirely short. The image that I have drawn is an entirely incomplete image. [111]

Eid Maṡnawī[123]
June 1892[124]
Location: Constantinople

O happy messenger of mine, yes, come!
Allah has furnished you with a good end.[125]

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